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INSTITUTE OF OPEN & DISTANCE LEARNING

IN COLLABORATION WITH

SCHOOL OF EDUCATION

**DEPARTMENT: CURRICULUM INSTRUCTION AND
EDUCATIONAL MEDIA**

COURSE TITLE: COMMUNICATION SKILLS

COURSE CODE: CIM 110

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INTRODUCTION



This module seeks to provide interactive content for undergraduate students who are enrolled for various undergraduate degree programs of Moi University in the School of Education. The module covers content for communication skills which is a core course for all degree programs. Communication skills is a core course taken by all students pursuing Bachelors of Education degree which include B.Ed (Arts) B.Ed(Science) B.Ed (Early Childhood and primary education) B.Ed (Technology) and B.Ed (Special needs). The course is designed to expose you to communication and study skills, which you will find to be extremely relevant in your career in education.

1. COURSE OVERVIEW

The course will equip you with necessary skills for university education. Students all over the world experience major problems in coping with their studies at the postsecondary level- particularly university level. This is due to the difference in study methods used at school and those used at the tertiary or university level: it is more challenging for students studying on their own. This is because

- You are left to your own method of study with little or no supervision from your lecturers.
- You are expected to do a very large volume of reading compared to what you did at school.
- The texts you will read will be more difficult than those you need at school.
- There will be new subjects and new approaches to the other subjects which will be unfamiliar to you.
- There are many attractions and distractions hence the need to organize your time very carefully

The courses will equip you with the skills necessary for life outside the university, particularly the job market. Such skills include reading and writing (e.g. letters, memos

and reports), handling meetings, carrying out research, public speaking, conducting interviews, conflict resolution, planning strategies, budgeting time and resources. In this case, you will be introduced to communication in general. Specific areas to be covered include Study Skills, Library Skills and Listening Skills. Reading Skills and Examination skills.

2. COURSE CONTENT

The course is subdivided into sections called weeks. Each week comprises;

- An introduction to the topic.
- Course outcome.
- Glossary of new terminologies.
- Content for the week with activities interpreted.
- Summary.
- Assessment.
- Further reading.

3. TIME FRAME

The course is expected to cover twelve weeks. You are expected to dedicate at least 3 hours each week to intensely study this module and engage with the tests provided at the end of each chapter. You are advised to ensure that you dedicate some time each week to also complete the tasks and assignments at the end of each topic. You will be expected to interact with a myriad of resources to firmly ground you in the module. Dedicate some two hours for extra work on each topic.

4. STUDY SKILLS

As an adult learner you will find learning to be different from your school days in that:

- You will choose what you want to study and when.
- You will consequently fit your study activities around with professional or domestic responsibilities.
- You will be taking control of your environment. Consequently, you will need to consider virus related time management, goal setting and stress management.
- You will need to reacquaint yourself in areas such as essay play. Coping with exams as well as using the web learning resource.

Apart from time and space that you will dedicate and require for learning a number of resources on the web provided excellent resources for learning.

These include:

a) <http://www.How-to-study.com/>

The “How to study” web site dedicated to study skills resources. You will find links to study preparation (a list of nine essentials for a good place), taking notes, and strategies for reading textbooks, using references sources, test anxiety.

b) <http://www.howtostudy.org/resources.php>

another “how to study” web site with useful links to time management, efficient reading, questioning/listening/observing skills, getting the most out of doing (“hands-on” learning), memory building, tips for staying motivated, developing a learning plan.

The two links indicated above are our suggestions to help you get started, however you may want to look for more at www.google.com where you type “self-study basics”, “self-study tips” and choose what you find appropriate and suitable for you.

5. NEED HELP?

This course is taught by Dr. Makobila Laban Adero, a lecturer in the School of Education, Department of Curriculum Instruction and Educational Media at Moi

University Main Campus. He can be reached on makolabby@yahoo.com or kobila2017@gmail.com Mobile Phone number 0733 241 591/0719 685 526.

You are strongly advised to visit Moi University Library in case you need any materials relevant to the course

6. ASSIGNMENTS

A number of questions are provided at the end of each topic. These are meant to aid you as you progress in your studies to determine how much learning you are achieving. In the course of the weekly assignments you will be expected to answer one question from each topic and submit online before moving onto a new topic/week. Your essay which should contain the following information should be submitted to: makolabby@yahoo.com every week.

The assignments will account for 30% of the marks

7. REFERENCES

Course Text/References

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- Pearson, J.C and Nelson, P.E. (2003). *An Introduction to Human Communication Understanding and Sharing*. Boston: McGraw Hill, Inc.
- Rothwell, J.D. (2000). *Into the company of others: An introduction to human Communication*. NY: McGraw-Hill, Inc.
- Saleemi, N.A. (1998). *Communication Simplified*. Nairobi: Saleemi Publishers.

8. Your comments- (Evaluation)

After completing the course take a few moments to give us feedback on all aspects of the course. The comments should be on:

- Course content and structure.
- Course reading materials and other resources.
- Course assignments.
- Course activities.
- Course duration.
- Course support (assignment tutors, technical help etc.)

9. REVIEW

This course will be reviewed after every cycle although minor reviews may be undertaken wherever there is need; in order to accommodate emerging issues and keep updated with market trends.

10. OUTCOMES

Expected learning outcomes

At the end of this course you, should be able to:

1. Define communication; identify its types and essential components, and clearly explain the communication process in education contexts.
2. Define studying, identify essential skills, and use them appropriately for learning at the university level.
3. Explain essential listening, speaking, reading, writing, library, and examination skills and apply them effectively while learning at university level.

11. MARGIN ICONS/SYMBOLS

While studying communication skills you will notice the frequent use of margin icons. The icons serve to signpost a particular piece of text, a new task or a change in activity. The icons have been included to assist you find your way easily round the course. A complete list of icons is provided below .Familiarize yourself with the icons and their meanings before starting your study



Introduction



Objectives



Glossary



Activity



Self-test questions



Summary



Further Reading (Specific to the Topic)

WEEK 1

WEEK 1 LECTURE 1-1HR

1.0 TOPIC: THE PROCESS OF COMMUNICATION

1.1 INTRODUCTION



This topic is designed to aid you develop a general overview of the concept of communication as it applies to education. In the context of teacher education a means through which educational experiences are transmitted is teaching. Teaching is a process that involves the transmission of ideas, feelings, skills and attitude. Teaching as a classroom interaction is a communication process in which the parties involved share the meaning of their experiences. In this section you will be taken through the process of communication, in terms of what it involves and how it can be made effective. This will involve defining the concept, looking at the elements of communication and its classroom application.

1.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week, you shall be able to:

- 1.2.1 Define the term communication
- 1.2.2 Relate the communication process to classroom interaction
- 1.2.3 Evaluate the effectiveness of the various channels of communication.
- 1.2.4 Develop positive habits that could enhance classroom communication.



1.3 GLOSSARY

Communication	A process through which you exchange ideas feelings or information.
Participants	Parties involved in the process of communication.
Channels	The means by which communication is relayed.
Feedback	This is the information which the receiver participant sends back to the sender participant as indication that the information has been received. This marks the completion of the communication process.
Encoding	The manner in which the sender packages the message.
Decoding	The treatment that the receiver gives the message in order to unpack the meaning of the message

1.4 COMMUNICATION

Communication has been defined by various people differently depending on their field of study.

(i) LEAGANS

A process by which two or more people exchange ideas facts, feelings or impressions in ways that each gains a common- understanding of the message. In other words it's the act of getting a sender and a receiver tuned together for particular message or suits of message.

(ii) SCHRAMM

Communication occurs when two corresponding systems coupled together through one or more non-corresponding systems assume identical status as a result of a single transfer along the chain.

(iii) LOOMS AND BEEGLE

The process by which information decision and directions pass through a social system and the ways in which knowledge opinion and attitudes are formed or modified.

(iv)AMERICAN COLLEGE DICTIONARY

Communication is the imparting or interchange of thoughts, opinion or information by writing speech or signs.

Thus communication can be said to be:

- A process by which one gives and receives information, signals or messages by talking, working, listening, reading and gesturing.
- An act by which a person shares knowledge, feelings, ideas and information in ways that each gains a common understanding of the meaning intent and use of the message.
- A process of social interaction; it is an exchange of information, knowledge, ideas or feelings taking place between two individuals. In a face to face situation along with the information one passes the gestures, expression, language the many of expression and tone to create an impact on both. Communication leads to some form of change in terms of knowledge and behavior.
- Communication can occur without the spoken word – audio, visual, touch and smell.
- Communication occurs when a message is sent from a source to a receiver and produces a specific mental or physical response.
- Communication may not always be a positive reaction. The transmission of facts or information should be carried out in a manner that the intended meaning and use of the message is understood by the communicators for it to become a two way process
- People communicate through various ways. A good communicator is able to find out feelings or reactions through a variety of ways.
- As a process of transmitting meaning between individuals, communication has been going on since time immemorial. It is vital for the progress of society. From the use symbols and gestures communication has continued to develop to the use of symbols through language and with the development of technology it has led to the use of written words and other media in addition to the symbols, gestures and the spoken word.

ELEMENTS OF COMMUNICATION

- Communication takes place when the sender selects a message and gives it a special treatment for transmission over a selected channel to a receiver who interprets the message before taking the desired action.



1. SENDER

The communicator, speaker or source. This is the person who puts the process into operation. He decides the message to be sent, how to treat it so that the audience can follow it. He decides the channel to use and the audience to be reached.

2. MESSAGE

This is the information package. It may be a single signal or a complete information through pamphlet, instructions, blue print etc

3. TREATMENT/ENCODING

This refers to the ways in which the message is handled before it is placed on a channel. Its purpose is to make the message clear, understandable and realistic to the audience.

4. THE CHANNEL

This is the avenue of communication for example the wire over which a telegram message is sent, the radio, newspaper, mobile phone etc.

5. THE RECEIVER/AUDIENCE

It may be a single person such as the recipient of a letter, a group of people or a mass such as radio listeners. The more homogeneous an audience is, the greater the chances are of effective communication

6. FEEDBACK

The message that the receiver sends back to the sender.

7. NOISE

Anything that inhibits the sending or receiving of the message.

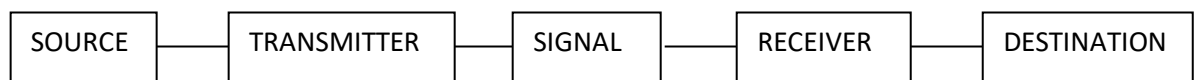
COMMUNICATION MODELS

1. ARISTOTLE'S MODEL



Such communication takes place in a face to face situation. The speech can be a message, an idea, thought or feeling.

2. SHAMMON'S - WEAVER MODEL



An improvement of the Aristotle model.

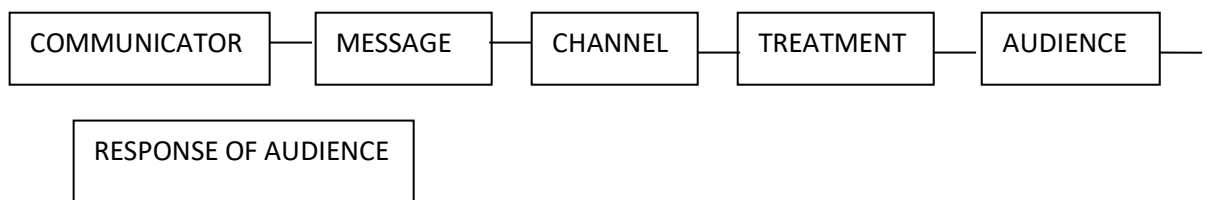
The source is the speaker. The signal, the speech and the destination is equivalent to the audience in Aristotle's model.

The transmitter sends out the messages and the receiver catches the information to take it to its destination.

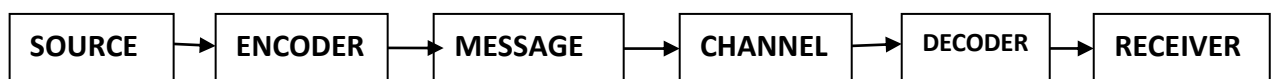
3. WESTLEY AND MACHEAN MODEL



4. LEAGAN'S MODEL



5. BERLO'S MODEL



FORM/SCOPE/ TYPES OF COMMUNICATION

- (I) VERBAL- The use of language code to express ideas
- (II) NON-VERBAL –The use of non-word signals e.g. gestures, facial expression, movement, dressing, space distance.

WEEK 1 LECTURE 2-1HR

FUNCTIONS OF COMMUNICATION

1. Information function

Giving or getting information underlines communication encounters. Information is basic to all other functions of communication

2. Command or instructive function

Those who are hierarchically superior initiate communication either to inform or tell their subordinates what to do. There is no dialogue since the rules about who can order who or do what things are mutually understood.

3. Influence or persuasive function.

This means to effect with intent the behavior of the people. The main aim of communication in persuasion. The purpose of influencing another's is comprehending system in some way would be alter that receiver's general beliefs, understandings, values, orientations etc. in a desired way.

4. Integrative function

At the interpersonal level communication is meant to offset disintegration. At the organizational level it is attained through bureaucratization, proceduralization, industrialization etc.

- Informative appeal to the mind
- Persuasive appeal to the soul

COMMUNICATION CHANNELS

- As already mentioned the avenues between a communicator and audience on which message travels is referred to as a channel.
- They are the transmission lines used for carrying message to their destination.
- A channel may be anything used by sender of message to connect him with the intended receivers. These include meetings, radio, books, bulletins, letters, newspapers, organized tours and personal contacts.

CLASSIFICATION OF CHANNELS

1. Interpersonal and mass media channels

Interpersonal channels are used for face to face communication between two or more people. Mass media channels are mechanical devices through which an individual or group can reach a relatively larger population in a shorter time. The members of the audience may be physically separated.

2. Laccolite and cosmopolite channels

Laccolite means communication of the same system. Cosmopolite indicates communication between many cultures, anything outside the system. Laccolite channels originate within the social system of the receiver. Cosmopolite channels have their origin outside the immediate social system. Interpersonal channels may be cosmopolite or laccolite depending on the location of service but mass media channels are almost always cosmopolite.

CHARACTERISTICS OF CHANNELS

(i) Time- space -time

Printed materials, still pictures and art objects are space organized. A radio broadcast and telephone conversation are time organized. Face to face communication, sound, film and television are time and space organized. Space organized media offer more favorable conditions for difficult concepts for masses of detail and selectivity on the part of the audience.

- Time organized media offer advantage for rote learning of simple material and for encouraging suggestibility on the part of the audience.

Space and time share the advantages and disadvantages of space media and time media.

-There are eye-men (Thomas) and ear-men.

These are skillful individuals in receiving space or time organized communication.

(ii) Participation

Media can be characterized as to whether they pursue much or little participation on the part of the audience. A higher degree of social participation tends to create a sense of involvement, a group bond and provides maximum feedback.

(iii) Speed:

Timeliness which books have the least.

(iv) Permanence:

Books give the greatest sense of permanence, followed by motion pictures and magazines. There is a small amount of permanence in newspaper and least in radio and TV.

Choice of a channel depends on the objectives.

WEEK 1 LESSON 3

1 HOUR

FEEDBACK

This is the action-reaction interdependence in communication. This is the return aspect in the process of communication.

- An experienced communicator is sensitive to feedback and modifies the message in the light of what is observed or heard from the audience.
- Feedback provides the source with information concerning his success in accomplishing his objectives.
- Learners perceive better, gain more knowledge and retain longer when opportunities for feedback are provided in a communication situation
- Person to person communication provides opportunities for maximum feedback. The source has an opportunity to change the message as a result of the feedback received.

THE ROLE OF FEEDBACK IN EDUCATION/TEACHING

In education both the delivery of content and seeing the resultant effect of the transference of new ideas are important.

i. Understanding vs. knowledge

Communication must promote understanding through effective and free feedback in order to remove all barriers between the sender and the receiver.

ii. Acceptance vs. reaction

An alert and thinking human mind requires that facts are understood before they are accepted. Mental acceptance precedes physical action. It is what human beings come to believe, not why they merely know that determines what they do when they are free to act as they choose feedback is essential in helping them act in the right way.

iii. Remembering vs. forgetting

Transmitting the right message to the right people at the right time is a crucial factor in successful communication, with the help of free feedback.

iv. Mental vs. physical action

A change in one's mind always precedes change in the action of the hand. Feedback removes the mental barrier in the way of equal adoption of innovation.

v. *Right vs. wrong*

The intention of communication is to promote desirable action by an audience as determined by the communication and the objectives. Constant feedback helps to correct transmission errors entering the communication channels.

Feedback is thus:

1. Source oriented
2. Varies in different communication situations
3. Affects the source
4. Exerts control over future message
5. Affects communication fidelity

Barriers to effective communication

A barrier is anything that inhibits communication or undermines the successes of communication.

Barrier to successful communication include message overload (when a person receives too many messages at the same time), and message complexity.

Physical barriers: Physical Barriers are often due to the nature of the environment. Thus, for example, the natural barrier which exists, if staff are located in different buildings or on different sites. Likewise, poor or outdated equipment, particularly the failure of management to introduce new technology, may also cause problems. Staff shortages are another factor which frequently causes communication difficulties for an organization. Whilst distractions like background noise, poor lighting or an environment which is too hot or cold can affect people's morale and concentration, which in turn interfere with effective communication.

System design: System Design faults refer to problems with the structures or systems in place in an organization. Examples might include an organizational structure which is unclear and therefore makes it confusing to know who to communicate with. Other examples could be in inefficient or inappropriate information systems, a lack of supervision or training, and a lack of clarity in roles and responsibilities which can lead to staff being uncertain about what is expected of them

Attitudinal barriers: Attitudinal Barriers come about as a result of problems with staff in an organization. These may be brought about, for example, by such factors as poor management, lack of consultation with employees, personality conflicts which can result to people delaying or refusing to communicate, the personal attitude of individual employees which may be due to lack of motivation or dissatisfaction at work, brought about by insufficient training to enable them carry out particular tasks, or just resistance to change due to entrenched attitudes and ideas.

Ambiguity of words/Phrases: Words sounding same but having different meaning can convey a different meaning altogether. Hence the communicator must ensure that the receiver receives the same meaning. It would be better if such words can be avoided by using alternatives.

Individual linguistics ability; is also important. The use of difficult or inappropriate words in communication can prevent people from understanding the message. Poorly explained or misunderstood messages can also result in confusion. We can all think of situation where we have listened to something explained which we just could not grasp.

Physiological barriers: may result from individuals' personal discomfort, caused, for example, by ill health, poor eye sight or hearing difficulties.

Presentation of information: is also important to aid understanding. simply put, the communicator must consider the audience before making the presentation itself and in cases where it is not possible the presenter can at least try to simplify his/her vocabulary so that majority can understand.

1.5 SUMMARY



During the week we were able to talk about communication. We defined communication and at length discussed its elements most notably channels and feedback. A great deal of discussion on barriers to effective communication was dealt with.

1.6 ACTIVITY



1.6.1 Imagine you are teaching a class, write down FIVE things which learners could do as a means of providing feedback to your teaching.

1.6.2 Explain how the activities in (1) above could aid you improve your presentation.

1.6.3 Consider a communication that you were in today. What functions did it fulfil? How did it meet your influence and or affiliation needs?

1.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



1.7.1 Discuss the relevance of communication skills to a teacher trainee.

1.7.2 Assess the quality of communication by examining its six characteristics.

1.8 FURTHER READING



Pearson, J. and Nelson P.E (2003). *An Introduction to Human Communication Understanding and Sharing*, Boston; McGraw Hill. Inc.

WEEK 2

STUDY SKILLS WEEK 2 LECTURE 1

2.0 Introduction



Studying has many definitions. This week we intend to explore a variety of study skills that you will find valuable in your studies. These include selecting and organizing information so that it can be learnt-efficiently and easily. Other skills to be highlighted include planning your work managing time and resources, taking and making notes, filing, critical thinking and problem solving.

2.1 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week you should be able to:



2.1.1 Outline skills that you will need to perfect your studies

2.1.2 Examine the factors that you would consider when drawing up a study timetable.

2.1.3 Evaluate the most effective methods of carrying out studies.



2.3 GLOSSARY

Study skills: Strategies used in reading understanding applying remembering and synthesizing information.

Timetable: A document that indicates the sub-division of courses into units that can be studied.

Study group: A cluster of people who meet regularly to discuss issues touching on their field of study.

Study methods: Approaches used in reading and synthesizing information.

2.4 PLANNING YOUR WORK

It is your responsibility to develop your mind and plan for all the work you will be doing during your studying. You have your academic studies, may be a family, a farm or some other business to take care of. You will therefore need-a lot of discipline to study. Your

24 hr day will seem to be insufficient when all you have on your hands is considered. So being able to plan for the day, week and even for a year will be necessary.

If you do not plan your time, you are likely to:

- ✓ Use too much time on one task leaving out no time or very little time for the other tasks.
- ✓ Work less efficiently because of lack of commitment.
- ✓ Do easy tasks first, postponing difficult ones.

When planning your study schedule, it is important to consider the time available for the work and the amount to be done. Planning for work requires making a study timetable, choosing a suitable study time, choosing which place to study effectively, choosing best methods to study and forming study groups

A study time table

After making the commitment to work hard, it becomes necessary to make studying part of your daily routine. When drawing the study time-table, the following should be considered.

- i) The number of hours for reading the topics in each course. You should take note that these could be hours you would spend sitting in the lecture hall before a lecture.
- ii) Self-study hours
- iii) Discussion hours
- iv) Time for a break, recreation, socialization, religious activities or leisure and meals.
- v) Time for re taxation/resting.

The time for self (private) study should be assigned different tasks depending on the work to be done. For example, do not write-English-8hours: Break down the time into various tasks like: looking for books, reading and making notes, reviewing notes, discussion, writing drafts, writing a final copy.

- A good study timetable should have the following features.
- It should have all the activities of the day/week
- It should have the hour and amount of time for each activity.
- It should be reasonably flexible to allow unexpected schedules.

- There should be breaks
- For academic activities, the time table should show individual topics but not the whole course.

Time of study

It is not possible to prescribe the best time to study since it varies from person to person. Some study early in the morning like from 2.00 am to 6.00 am while others prefer to study late at night like from 9.00 to 12.00pm.

Whatever time you study, you should pay attention to the following:

- i) Be physically fit. When you are unwell you cannot concentrate on your studies
- ii) Eat and sleep properly.
- iii) Take a break for 15-20 minutes to relax in the course of studying.
- iv) Change activity when boredom sets in.
- v) When you are most fresh study those subjects that do not interest you, and when you are getting tired, study those subjects that most interest you. You should train yourself to concentrate on material, whether or not it is interesting. It is a matter of attitude and self-discipline.

You should always make an effort to find a convenient place for studying

Apart from pens and books, you will need a table, a chair, and good lighting at night.

Other factors like the following also have to be considered:

- i) A quiet place with enough air and light
- ii) A table that is clear of distractions like a newspaper, a radio or your children's exercise books. You may be tempted to check how they are doing.
- iii) Do not sit on a sofa set or a bed. You could easily go to sleep.
- iv) If you decide to read in the sitting room, face the wall and not the people.
- v) Avoid sitting near a window since you can see what is happening outside, and get distracted.

Method of study

For effective studying, you should carry out the following activities.

- i) Read and make study notes. You can summarize your course notes or notes from books. Charts or other aids can be used to help you remember what you learnt quickly.
- ii) Think as you study and do not just read. Make an effort to recall the information;
- iii) You should try to understand and not memorize all that you learn. However, certain information must be memorized like names, dates and formulae.
- iv) Read the same subject.
- v) Draw relationships between content that you read. For example, some content that you learn in communication skills can also be made use of in Education. Drawing from a background information is also helpful since it will be in your long term memory
- vi) Discuss with your fellow students or with your lecturers.

STUDY GROUPS

It should be possible for you to find two or more students registered for the same course with whom you can form a study group. A study group has the following advantages.

- i) You can gain from the planning skills of one, another
- ii) You are able to make use of limited resources like textbooks by sharing within the group.
- iii) You can learn from one another as well as son out any queries about the course work. Ideas can also be exchanged, before writing your assignments.
- iv) You can revise for examinations since you can cover more work as a group than as an individual:

Tips about Organizing a Study Group

You should take in turns in organizing for your work. This is having a rotational chairperson

It is possible that you may keep this group for four years.

Meetings should be regular for easy recall.

Always plan ahead before you leave. Agree on what you should do when you meet the next time.

Discussion groups will only work if every member is committed. Participation must be 100%.

Remember that not all activities are suitable for a discussion group.

Perhaps the most serious problem noted in group discussions is that not all students participate.

Lack of participation is caused by:

- Shyness
- Unwillingness to begin
- Unsuitable topic
- Lack of similar interests
- Lack of group leadership e.g. chairman, secretary.

2.5 SUMMARY



This week we have learnt that, study skills are strategies that you will employ in order to recall, understand, apply, analyze, synthesize and evaluate information read. Some of the skills include: planning your work, designing a study timetable, choosing the best time of study and the best study method. Similarly, study groups enhance planning skills, making use of limited resources as well as maximizing the use of limited resources like textbooks through sharing within the group.

2.6 ACTIVITY



2.6.1 Read through the module and write down the study skills discussed

2.6.2 Make your own study timetable and determine the following

- 1). The courses
- 2). The duration for each course
- 3). Why you have allocated the sessions the way you have

2.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



2.7.1. Justify the formation of study groups among university students as a means of revision



2.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) a University course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi, Nairobi University Press.

WEEK 3

3.0 TOPIC: MANAGING TIME AND RESOURCES

3.1 INTRODUCTION



As a student you will appreciate that your success will depend on how you utilize the resources that are available. Some of the resources might be in plenty yet others could be scarce.

This week we examine some of the resources that as a student you will find to be useful. These resources will include time, books, human resources as well as notes. You will also be taken through the qualities of a university student.

3.2 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week, you should be able to:-



- 3.2.1 Identify the resources available to you as a student.
- 3.2.2 Discuss approaches you could deploy in managing time and books
- 3.2.3 Develop and preserve your own notes
- 3.2.4 Highlight qualities of a university student as a critical thinker.



3.3 GLOSSARY

3.3.1 TIME - A point measured in hours and minutes

As a verb it means to plan schedule or arrange when something should happen or be done.

3.3.2 CRITICAL THINKING: The objective analysis of issues in order to form a judgement. The objective analysis of facts to form a judgement.

3.3.3 RESOURCES: Stock or supply of money, materials, staff and other assets that can be drawn on by a person or organization in order to function effectively.

3.3.4 NOTES: A brief record of points or ideas written as aid to memory.

WEEK 3 LECTURE 1-1HR

3.4 MANAGING TIME

This involves how best to use the time available for attending lectures, private study, other activities and relaxation. Managing time is best done by making a study time table, which helps you distribute time appropriately for all your tasks. The time table should be realistic and easy to adhere to. The following are tips for managing time:

Plan

Start each day by making a general schedule on things you must accomplish, and things you will try to accomplish

Concentrate

Do not try to do too many things at the same time. Accomplish one before embarking on the next.

Take breaks

Do not work continuously for long periods. Take breaks from books and do something unrelated before going back to read. One study session should be about two hours.

Proper environments

Avoid too many books, paper etc. where you are reading. Only have those that you need at that particular time.

Do not be a perfectionist

Striving for perfection leads to frustration and time wasting. Strive to produce the best you can achieve - not the most perfect.

Learn to say no

Learn to tactfully but firmly decline to waste time on issues that do not help you to achieve your goals.

Do not procrastinate

Do not put off or postpone tasks unnecessarily. What you can do today, do not schedule for tomorrow.

Avoid time wasting

Do not participate in activities that simply waste your time e.g. idle talk and gossip.

Delegate

Assign other duties that they can perform, especially in group work.

Do not be a workaholic

Give yourself time for socialization, and involve yourself in hobbies and interests. Too much work may be dangerous.

MANAGING RESOURCES

There are many resources available to a student at the university.

These include:

- i) Books and other Academic Materials
- ii) Lecturers
- iii) Fellow students
- iv) Outsiders-people in the ministry, others
- v) Printed and Electronic Media - Newspapers, Radio, Internet, T.V.
- vi) Money- from parents, relatives, HELB, etc.

These resources can only be beneficial to the student when they are efficiently managed.

Books

Some of the books and other academic materials that you will need are available in the university, while others have to be bought. The following tips are important in the management of books and other academic resources.

- i. Check your reading list and the library stock before deciding on which books to buy.
- ii. Seek advice from the lecturers or other students who are ahead of you.

- iii. Postpone buying texts until lecturers have started when your needs become obvious.
- iv. Do not buy books whose use will be so limited, that a library copy will suffice.
- v. Check that a likely relevant book is both appropriate and readable before buying.
- vi. Do not buy several books in groups
- vii. Think of other equipment that you will need during your studies and make them top priority - before you buy personal items.
- viii. Create an efficient storage and retrieval system of books and other academic materials
- ix. Always budget: identify the items you need and what they cost.

LECTURERS

Lecturers combine the academic functions of conservation and extension in then-teaching. Conservation is the process of safeguarding and propagating knowledge that has accumulated over time. Extension ventures into new areas through research.

Based on the two approaches to teaching classroom practices will differ. Students are placed in a difficult position of learning to cope up with a variety of teaching methods. The students should endeavor to establish good working relationships with their lecturers by getting to know them as individuals.

Students should also keep in mind that the university offers a chance for them to get to know other people (not only lecturers) who have established themselves as scholars, scientists or specialists - in different fields. It is important to find out the help of such people can offer to facilitate academic achievement.)

Students should also make the best use of fellow students. People have different talents, abilities, approaches and virtues which others can benefit from. In addition, students will always have different resources and facilities that others can share. Do not be mean.

In the management of resources, particularly finances, it is always very important to budget. For example, it will be very futile to buy ten reams of foolscap paper for a semester of fourteen weeks! Do not also buy a stethoscope if you will not be studying medicine Remember that it is your money and so use it wisely.

Note: Why it is necessary to acquire own resources.

To have a complete logical account of many of the major ideas to be studied,

To broaden the scope and get other points of view

If you are faster or slower worker than others.

If you can't follow the lecturer easily

Some specialist lectures tend to assume that students have the same ability, knowledge and approach as they do. In such cases, students must read widely in order to cope with the lecturers.

TAKING AND MAKING NOTES

Notes:

Notes are a written record of something e.g. a lecture, an interview, or an experience that we would like to remember. Owing to the circumstances in which they are usually taken and the purpose for which we need them, notes are characteristically sketchy and free of such things as too much exemplification or argumentation. A distinction may be drawn between note-taking and note-making.

Note-taking

This refers to the short summaries made during lectures, seminars or tutorials. In order to take meaningful notes, you should be aware of the following.

Notes are a record of the speaker's MAIN IDEAS, not a word record.

Notes should be written in your own words as much as possible to avoid copying things you do not understand

They should be in point form with clear numbering, using headings and subheadings.

Note-Making

This refers to notes made from written sources. The points above also apply. The important thing is to be sure you can tell what is really necessary for you to remember later as the main points of the author whose work you are reading. The points you may need to note as a reader include:

- Important facts of statistical data;

- Useful definitions
- New technical terms;
- Some unsightly comments and
- Some particularly-interesting arguments for or against some idea in your area of study.

Storage and Retrieval of Notes

To use your notes effectively, you must ensure that they are well organized for easy access. Two options for keeping notes are available to the student. You can use note books or foolscap. Files are preferable to note-books. It is easy to insert new information between the pages of file. Moreover, you do not need to take your file to a lecture or the library, as in the case of notebooks. If you decide to use notebooks they should be large, A4 size books of 200 pages or more.

FILING

Filing refers to the arrangement of notes, papers or documents in a folder or file, in an orderly or systematic manner for easy retrieval. If you choose use of foolscap paper for writing notes, you will definitely need files. You also need to file some photocopied material. There are many types of files in the market that you can choose from. Box, spring, clip and pocket are available in many bookshops. There are two ways in which you can use files:

1. You can choose to have a file for each subject that you are studying. E.g. for seven course, you will need seven files. In this case, the file should have the following.
 - a) Your name and registration number
 - b) Name of the course and its code e.g. CIM 110- Communication Skills
 - c) Year of study and semester
 - d) The lecturers name
 - e) Residential address and possibly phone number
 - f) Subdivisions made clearly labeled tags according to different units/topics/major areas of the course e.g. Communication, Study Skills, Library Skills, Listening Skills, Reading Skills, Examination Skills.

Table of contents to indicate what each tag marks,

E.g. content tags

Communication A

Study Skills B

You can file three or more courses in one file like a box file since it is very big. In this case, you will separate the different courses with file dividers like the ones that are described in the one-course-one file above.

Note.

- Write the date on each set of notes or handouts
- File the note, handouts in the order in which they are written or received.

Advantages of filing

- One does not carry all notes around - only a clip board and paper is required for lectures.
- Notes that are not clear can be removed or replaced with ease.
- Students personal notes can be filed at the same place as lecture notes
- Notes by the same lecturer or on same topic can be filed in progressive order.
- New material can be inserted at the appropriate place.
- There is easy retrieval of information for revision
- Notes can be easily expanded.

WEEK 3 LECTURE 3-1HR

CRITICAL THINKING AS A CHARACTERISTIC OF A STUDENT

This can be defined as disciplined thinking in accordance with given or accepted principles. It brings into focus problems and possibilities in learning and thereby makes learning intellectually stimulating. A critical thinker solves problems with objectivity and maturity. Because of this, a critical thinker makes considerable generalizations. A critical thinker sees relationships in a given phenomenon; hence makes intelligent conclusions.

CRITICAL THINKING SKILLS

Critical thinking skills aim at determining whether arguments are sound. Sound arguments are based on true premises and possess logical strength. Critical skills involve interpretive skills, verification skills and reasoning skills.

Interpretive skills aid the determination of the precise meaning of arguments to make them clear. Verification skills determine the truth or falsity of statements. There are various types of statements and each type has different means of determining their truthfulness or falsity. Reasoning skills aid inferences. Reasoning aid in problem solving, decision making, character assessment, prediction etc. Reasoning involves inference. Inference involves linking relationship between different thoughts.

- Joy is broke and she is unhappy
- Joy is broke, therefore she is unhappy.

SIGNIFICANCE OF CRITICAL THINKING SKILLS

- They enable the application of information in order to draw out their implication and consequences to avoid being misled.
- Enable one to distinguish bad arguments from good arguments and work out what ought to be and what ought not to be believed. Thinking for oneself is key.

Intellectual respect

- One is able to make appropriate logical criteria to determine what to believe and what not to believe for one own's self-interest. When people seek to make people believe things that are in their own interests it is possible that our own interests are not well served.
- Makes it easier for us to persuade others to change their beliefs. Many beliefs are based on emotion than on reason even though those holding them usually believe they are based on reason thus having rational basis. Critical thinking can be effective in dislodging such beliefs and persuading others to change their views.

DEFINITIONS

Definitions are important in as long as they aid in eliminating misunderstanding, and whenever we come across words that are unfamiliar or when a word is being used in an unfamiliar manner.

- Definition of words work at two levels namely:
 - (i) Sense of a term- connotation or intension
 - (ii) Reference (denotation or extension.

Sense of a word

The understanding of the meaning of the word

Reference

The class to which the word refers.

The purpose of definition is defined by the type of definition. Three major types of definitions.

(i) Reportage definition

- Definition that conveys the information needed in order to use a word correctly; for example when reporting the standard usage of a word such as those found in standard dictionaries.
- Reportage definitions are usually straight forward.

(ii) Stipulative definitions

- Creation of new precise meaning
- It does not report the standard usage even though it does not radically depart from it.
- Stipulative definitions clearly stated eliminate misunderstanding and increase clarity and precision.
- New words can be invented stipulatively e.g. sexting, telerape etc.
- Stipulatively a new means can be ascribed to an old term e.g. bubble in relation to what policies says.
- The new words or uses cannot become part of the standard usage though.

(iii) Essentialist definition

- These definitions reveal the essential elements of a concept.
- Essentialist definitions can be expressed as compressed theories which attempt to succinctly express the form of what is being defined.

METHODS OF DEFINITION

1. GENUS/SPECIES

- Defining a word by mentioning a larger category to which that kind of thing belongs and specifying what distinguishes that particular kind from other species in the genus.
- A sea plane is an airplane that is adapted for landing on and taking off from a body of water.

2. OSTENSIVE

Conveying the meaning of a word by giving examples

3. BY SYNONYM

Defining a word by giving its synonym

Effulgent means the same as radiant

4. OPERATIONAL

Definition by specifying a rule of operation. Defining concepts in a way that specify when exactly it can be applied and when it cannot.

E.g. A genius is anyone who scores over 140 on a standard IQ test.

Operational definitions are commonly used to distinguish things that form a continuum e.g. the quality of studies e.g. A grade A student is a student who scores 70%

5. CONTEXTUAL

Defining words by using them in a context through providing a different sentence.

Characteristics of a critical thinker

1. Reasonable and fair in judgment
2. Considerate of other people's views and alternatives
3. Efficient in problem solving and is results oriented
4. Enthusiastic in the pursuit of knowledge and asks creative questions.
5. Independent minded. Takes a position or changes as appropriate
6. Has self-awareness (Aware of strengths and weaknesses)
7. Clear in communicating ideas and feelings and feelings Effective as a communicator.
8. Effective as a team member - social
9. Critical in evaluation of evidence and arguments raised
10. Curious about the world and tries to be well informed.

Problem solving

A problem is a situation which interferes with efforts to attain a goal. It could be physical, mental, or spiritual. Problem solving is the process by which interference towards a given goal is overcome. For effective problem solving, there is need for a methodological approach before and during the problem solving.

Before solving the problem

1. Make sure that you know what your goals are.
2. Develop a system by which you will get the intended results.
3. Monitor the quality and quantity of your system
4. Make sure that you complete the problem properly and on time.
5. Review the objectives you set and the methods used.

During the problem solving

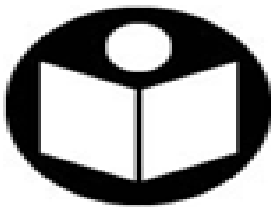
1. Formulate the problem
2. Interpret the problem
3. Construct a course of action
4. Make appropriate decisions
5. Implement the actions/decisions
6. Evaluate your work.

Profile of a good university student (Effective study skills)

A good university student should be:

1. Goal driven - know the academic environment and manipulate it to achieve goals
2. Self-motivated - hardworking and committed
3. Time, conscious - plans a timetable and adheres to it as much as possible
4. Open minded - adapts to change
5. Social - makes effective use of study groups and shares ideas
6. A critical thinker - analyses issues and solves problems
7. Thirsty for knowledge - reads widely and seeks to be well informed
8. Self -disciplined - makes responsible use of freedom
9. Result oriented - has set objectives which he endeavours to achieve
10. Principled- avoids pressure

3.5 SUMMARY



This week we looked at time management as a skill which requires planning concentration, avoiding procrastination for its effective use. We also discussed books, lecturers' notes and money as critical resources that students have to plan for. We demonstrated the usefulness of notes as depending to a large extent on how they are kept and retrieved for easy use. We wound up our lectures by looking at the characteristics of a student as a critical thinker capable of solving problems objectively.

3.6 ACTIVITY



3.6.1 Read the section on the qualities of a university student again. In a paragraph of not more than 150 words explain how you could select a book for your studies.

3.6.2 Look at the table of content for this course

- I. Prepare a file for the course CIM 110 based on the table of contents.
- II. Write down the contents of the first page of the file

3.6.3 Write down all the activities that you perform and show the ones that can be avoided on a:

1. Daily basis
2. Weekly basis
3. Monthly basis

3.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



3.7.1 You have so far met the following concepts in the study of this course

- I. communication
- II. Study skills
- III. Notes
- IV. File

For each of the terms provide the following types of definitions

- a. Species definition
- b. Ostensive definition
- c. Operational definition

3.7.2 Identify the equipment you need to purchase for your studies and for each indicate the amount required, the cost and reasons for purchase.



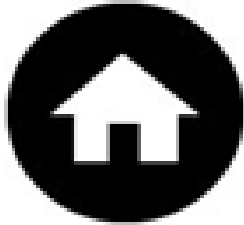
3.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) a University course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi, Nairobi University Press.

WEEK 4

4.0 LISTENING SKILLS

4.1 INTRODUCTION



In this section we shall look at the skills of listening and oral presentation. These, like many others you will learn, are very important to the success of all human interactions. It will require that you spend sufficient time in practicing the skill because that is the best way to acquire any skill.

The skill of listening is part of oral skills. It is a very important interactive skill which enhances human communication. It is a skill best learnt through practice and you are challenged to practice it. A number of aspects of the skill to be dealt will include the listening process, characteristics of good listening, factors that can inhibit listening, how to improve listening and note taking as an aid to listening.

4.2 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week you should be able to:



- 4.2.1 Examine listening as an active process.
- 4.2.2 Outline the characteristics of good listening skills.
- 4.2.3 Evaluate factors that could contribute to misunderstanding during the listening process.
- 4.2.4 Show how one could improve their listening habits.
- 4.2.5 Explain the role of listening in strategic flexibility
- 4.2.6 Differentiate between good listeners and poor listeners
- 4.2.7 Distinguish among and give the key characteristics of active, critical and emphatic listening



4.3 GLOSSARY

4.3.1 Active listening: A communication technique used in counselling training and conflict resolution that requires the listener to fully concentrate, understand and respond to what is being said.

4.3.2 Critical listening: A form of listening that involves analysis, critical thinking and making judgement

4.3.3 Empathic listening: A listening technique that helps avoid and manage disruptive behaviours

4.3.4 Listening: Attending to a stimuli

4.3.5 Listening preparation: Getting ready for the listening activity

WEEK 4 LECTURE 1 HOUR

4.4 THE ROLE OF LISTENING IN EFFECTIVE COMMUNICATION

Look at any of the figures in topic one on the elements of communication. You will notice that listening is not labeled as one of the elements, yet you know that listening is an essential component of effective communication.

Listening begins before communication starts. It involves preparation, receiving, constructing meaning, evaluation, selection, responding, applying and remembering.

Listening preparation involves the physical, mental and behavioural aspects that create a readiness to listen. These are the aspects which the listener brings to the communication situation as they anticipate the various needs and requirements likely to arise.

Receiving is the process of taking in, acquiring or accepting. It occurs through the various senses (hearing, seeing, smelling, touching and tasting). Listening forms part of the perceptual process in communication. It is similar but not the same as assessment in which all factors, elements and conditions of situations are considered.

Listening differs from hearing. Hearing is physiological process involving the various parts of the ear whereas listening is more complicated perceptual process involving total response to others including verbal and non-verbal communication. Receiving of messages is accomplished by the ears in conjunction with other senses and it involves hearing not listening. Listening occurs at the next level.

Listening involves the construction of meaning. Construction of meaning involves making sense of the cues, signals and impulses received. The ability to make meaning is a unique human capacity. In listening, all the senses are involved. This calls for focusing attention on particular stimuli. This is called selective attention in which the listener focuses perception. Assigning meaning to the cues, signals and impulses and in the construction of meaning. Assigning meaning is an important process before responding because you must weight what the speaker says against the personal beliefs you hold, question the speaker's motive, wonder what has not been said or even challenge the validity of the ideas. In assigning meaning, meaning is given to the speaker's voice, gestures and facial expressions as much as to the words.

The fourth aspect of listening is responding. This means using verbal and non-verbal messages to exchange ideas or convey information.

Finally, the final stage in the listening process is remembering. The information is learned well and securely stored in the memory system in order to be recalled. A number of skills can aid memory. These include note taking and the deployment of a number of listening styles.

LISTENING STYLES

PEOPLE LISTENING STYLE – The listener is concerned with the other person's teachings, by seeking out common interests and responding to the emotions.

This style is common among couples, families and best friends.

ACTION LISTENING – The listener desires precise, error free presentations and they are likely to be impatient with disorganization. A good example is when a supervisor expects reports from their juniors.

CONTENT LISTENING- The listener prefers complex and challenging information. The information is almost always abstract and requires listening without emotional involvement before making judgement. A good example is when a doctor listens to his colleagues on how his patient could be treated. The doctor understands the information and procedure.

TIME-STYLE LISTENING- Listeners prefer brief and hurried interaction. The listeners will always make known how much time they have to listen to their counter parts. News people for example need to get information quickly and efficiently as they get ready for newscasts. This is because they mostly work against time.

KINDS/TYPES OF LISTENING

We can identify three types of listening namely: active, critical and empathic listening. Let us look at what each entails.

ACTIVE LISTENING

Used to obtain information such as directions, understand others solve problems and share interests. In the listening process the active listener is focused, connected and

centred. In active listening it is important to identify the main idea i.e. the central thought that runs through the communication. This is buttressed by the main heads which reinforce the central idea. Once the main heads are located, we listen to the supporting points which back up the main idea. After identifying the central idea, the listener forms a mental outline. This is a sketch of the principal features of the communication. Such sketches often provide leads about the way the speakers are thinking, what they want to know and how they are going to move through their material. In a nutshell a mental outline allows the listener to see the forest not individual trees.

The third activity in an active listening is the ability to predict what is likely to happen next. This keeps the mind focused.

The fourth activity is to relate the points or what you are listening to your life experience. This will add meaning to the information and make it easily memorable. Active listening also calls for looking at the similarities and differences between the information they receive and what they know.

Finally, asking questions is important critical listening. This seeks to challenge, test, stretch and demand more.

This is likely to be stimulating, exciting and inspiring.

CRITICAL LISTENING

Critical listening is key to all communication even though it could be difficult when listening to complex information. There are a number of strategies involved in critical listening such as determining the speaker's motives, challenging and questioning the ideas, distinguishing facts from fiction or opinions, assessing the message and recognizing your own biases.

EMPATHIC LISTENING

Empathy is the process of mentally identifying with characters and experiences of another person. It involves the emotional projection of yourself into another's life. Listening to other people's feelings is a way of creating intimacy with others. To empathize, we need to identify the feelings involved by allowing the speakers to say what happened and encourage them to find solutions to their own problems.

Steps involved in empathetic listening:

- Identifying the emotions by listening to what the speaker is really saying
- Listening to the story attentively without responding to anything specifically
- Paraphrasing i.e. restating the person's thoughts or feelings in your own words.

A paraphrased remark provides a mirror for the speaker's words.

Finally, you allow the person to work out their problem.

CHARACTERISTICS OF EFFECTIVE LISTENERS

- Must be patient to listen
- Use appropriate non-verbal language as feedback to speaker
- Asks relevant questions to prompt further discussions
- Interrupt only when it is necessary and when invited
- Pay attention to the speaker (message)
- Focus on what the speaker says (content of presentation)
- Adjust to speaker's communication styles for better understanding
- Respects the speaker's view/points of view
- Exhibits high concentration to the speaker and message.

Factors to consider when listening during a lecture

- One must be silent
- Pay attention to speaker's mannerism
- Note important points
- Introduction and conclusions on a topic
- Pauses, voice and tempo
- Show concentration/pay attention to message
- Use good/appropriate gestures to show interest
- Avoid reading other materials
- Use symbols in notes
- Distance between speaker and listener should encourage appropriate listening
- Avoid external interference
- Should be in good health
- Have a positive attitude towards – speaker, topic

WEEK 4 LECTURE 2- 1 HOUR

Factors likely to negatively affect a listener during a lecture

- Interruptions e.g. receiving phone calls, movement of things or people in the lecture hall.
- Lack of paying attention (a listener who has a wondering mind)
- Boring lecture/not motivating and captivating
- Mode of dressing by speaker/lecturer
- Congestion of in room/lecture hall
- Chewing or eating during the lecture
- Dozing during lecture
- Inaudibility of the lecturer
- Lack of use of good pronunciation by the lecturer
- Weather conditions not favourable for listening
- Attitude towards the lecturer
- Attitude towards the topic of discussion.

NOTE-TAKING AS A LISTENING ACTIVITY

One of the reasons why we listen is to acquire information. Research has shown that we can lose up to 80% of the content is forgotten within two weeks if no effort is made to record or to remember the material. This stresses the importance of note-taking during a listening session.

Remember however, not to make a copy of the speaker's material because:

- a) It is not possible - you cannot match the speaker's speed.
- b) It is not necessary - record only what will enable you to recall everything of significance the speakers says.

Note taking helps you to remember both what you heard and what you understood. It is learning about the subject and not simply recording all that the speaker says. By taking notes you are able to pay closer attention to and become more familiar with the new information.

GUIDELINES TO NOTE-TAKING

Since it is impossible to record every word it is important for you to develop economical methods of putting the information you require down.

- (a) Date the page
- (b) Record any other pertinent information you might need
 - i) Speakers' name
 - ii) Title of the lecture/speech
 - iii) Venue
 - iv) Time
- (c) Use symbols

e.g.

=	Equals	F	Female (s)
<	Less than	M	Male (s)
#	Number	☐	Sunny weather/bright
>	Greater than/more than	—	Is caused by
	Rise	—	Leads/means/causes/results to
↓	Fall/decline	≈	Approximately

Use abbreviations

e.g.	Inf.	Information	e.g.	example
	p	Page	b/ground	background
	Pp	Pages	dep't	department
	Cf	Compare	sc	science

Use acronyms (names formed from the first letters or syllables of other words)

e.g.

AGOA	African Growth and opportunity Act-
EMU	Efficiency Monitoring Unit
IGAD	Intergovernmental Aid and Development
ILRI	International livestock Research Institute
KEMRI	Kenya Medical Research Institute
KICOMI	Kisumu Cotton Mills
KNUT	Kenya National Union of Teachers
KUPPET	Kenya Union of Post Primary Teachers
MOUMEX	Mount Kenya Textiles
WAC	World Agro Forestry Centre

VIWAA	Visual Inspection with Acetic Acid (A cheap costing Ksh.25 for detecting cervical cancer] Horizon-p 23 Arthur Okwenda.
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WEEK 4 LECTURE 3-1 HOUR

FORMATS OF NOTE TAKING

There are many note-taking formats. Use the form that will help you to review easily. You will need to consider the nature of the content. A note format for Mathematics will not be the same as that one of History, Biology, etc. Biology, for example may call for diagrams; Geography for maps, charts, graphs etc.

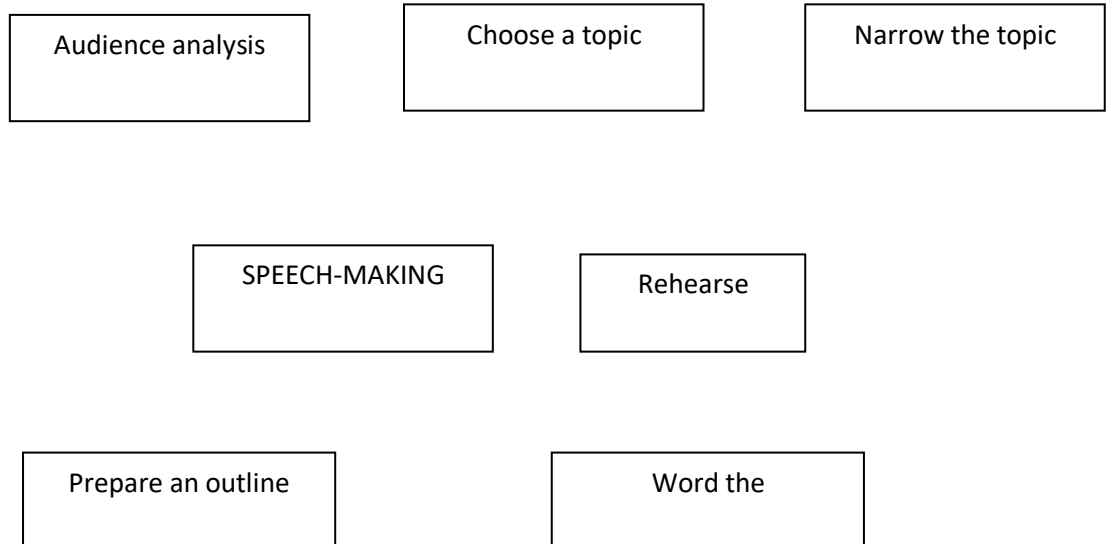
NB: Think of how the presenter has ordered the material. A good lecture or speech has three distinct parts: the introduction, the body, and the conclusion. Listen to the main points of discussion, which are usually given in the introduction. The body then develops them while the conclusion (among other functions) sums them up and points forward to the next step.

Letter and numeral format

In this format, Arabic numerals and Roman numerals are used.

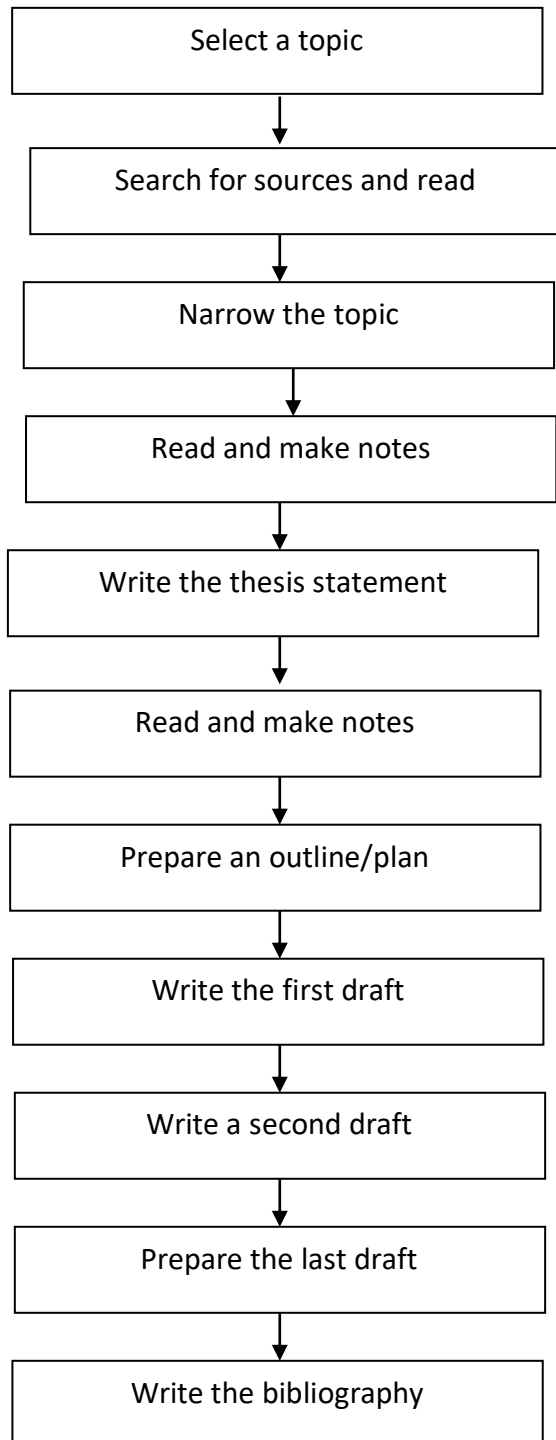
1. Main idea
 - A. Subordinate idea
 1. Elaboration of A
 2. Elaboration of A
 - B. Subordinate idea
 1. Elaboration of B
 2. Elaboration of B

2. Clustering/mind maps, etc.



Flow chart

Writing a Research Paper



When Not To Take Notes

1. When the speaker tells you not to write
2. When the speaker hands out an outline, notes, or other material and then reads directly from the handout. In this case you can annotate the handout for any extra details.
3. When it is very clear that what is being said is out of topic. For *example, a poor* presenter may bring in unrelated issues especially if there is no clear plan or organisation. At other times the speaker may notice lack of concentration among some listeners. He/she then cracks a joke to re-establish the listening mood.

4.5 SUMMARY



This week we have seen listening as an active process that is either casual or focused. Effective listening can be achieved through practice by paying attention to factors which enhance good habits while checking against those factors that could deter listening. We also looked at note taking as an important aid to listening and noted that it is a selective process that can be developed through different formats such as letter/numerals and clustering/mind maps.

4.6 ACTIVITY



4.6.1 Consider any two television programmes you enjoy watching. Write down:

- a) The non-verbal signals the participants use in delivering their arguments.
- b) Write down words which if not well articulated could result in miscommunication.

4.6.2 Read notes on public speaking. Make notes on how accent interferes with oral delivery.

EXTENDED LEARNING ACTIVITY

ARE YOU A GOOD LISTENER

For each statement circle the numerical score that best represents your listening ability using the following scale:

7 = Outstanding; 6 = Excellent; 5 = Very good; 4 = Average/Good; 3 = Fair; 2 = Poor; 1 = Minimal ability; 0 = No ability demonstrated

	7	6	5	4	3	2	1	0
1. I listen for the other person's feelings, not just the words he/she says								
2. I paraphrase what other people say to me								
3. I don't interrupt								
4. I am open-minded to ideas, some which I may not agree with								
5. I remember what people say								
6. I am willing to express my feelings								
7. I don't complete other people's sentences even when I think I know what they are going to say next								
8. I make eye contact								
9. I don't think of what I am going to say next while the other person is talking								
10. I ask the person questions to get more information and show that I am interested in what they are saying								
11. I am comfortable with silence								
12. I am aware of a person's body language and my own body language								

SOURCE: Adapted from Assessing Your Listening Ability, Washington

4.7 SELF TEST QUESTION



1. Examine the characteristics of a good public speaker



4.8 FURTHER READING

Clark P.A (2000) *Organizational communication in action*: London, Rutledge.

WEEK 5

5.0 SPEAKING SKILLS

5.1 INTRODUCTION



We have so far looked at listening as an important communication skill. Listening presupposes speaking. Consequently, this week we wish to look at the process of speaking by looking at the power of public speaking, clarifying the purpose of your speech, analyzing your audience, choosing the topic and researching on it and ethical speaking.

5.2 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week you should be able to:



- 5.2.1 Examine the power of public speaking and the value of preparation
- 5.2.2 Identify the purpose of speech
- 5.2.3 Discuss the centrality of audience in public speaking
- 5.2.4 Highlight the characteristics of a good public speaker
- 5.2.5 Describe factors that inhibit good speech
- 5.2.6 Evaluate the characteristics of a good speaker



5.3 GLOSSARY

5.3.1 Public Speaking: The process or act of performing a speech to a live audience.

Act or process of making speeches in public

5.3.2 Audience: Assembled spectators or listeners at a public event

5.3.3 Ethical speaking: A set of moral principles

5.4 PUBLIC SPEAKING SKILLS

Public speaking involves:

- A speaker who has a reason for speaking
- An audience that gives the speaker attention.
- Message meant to accomplish specific purpose.

Speaking is a powerful form of communication that has changed the world. Learning how to speak powerfully can play an important role in your personal and professional life giving you an edge over less skilled communicators. Globally, it is considered as one of the most important skills an employee can possess.

STRATEGIES OF APPROACHING PUBLIC SPEAKING

(i) Identifying the general purpose of your speech

There are generally three general purposes of speaking – informing, persuading and special occasion speeches.

Informative speech aim to increase the knowledge of the audience by presenting new relevant and useful information. Such speeches could explain a process, plan or describe objects or places, characterize a particular state of affairs or accomplish many tasks at once. Informative speeches could also answer questions about the world around us.

Persuasive speeches on the other hand are intended to influence the attitudes, beliefs and behaviours of your audience.

Special occasion speeches use the principles of both informative and persuasive speaking. Such speeches are delivered at weddings, parties or funerals.

(ii) Analyzing the audience

This is critical in the sense that you are asking your audience to accept your message. Determine where they are starting from in terms of their previous knowledge of your topic and their perceptions of you as a speaker.

(iii) Determine your audience expectation

People naturally will bring different expectations and emotions to a speech event. The expectations of the audience would mostly be determined by among others the topic, the information their culture provides about public speaking and their knowledge about you. Generally audiences can be influenced by factors which you are not in control of such as time of the day, events happening in the outside world or the comfort and attractiveness of the room.

There are various types of audiences. Find out more from wide reading about them. They include pedestrian audiences, passive audience, selected audience, concerned audience and organized audience. In determining the type of audience it is also important to examine the demographics of an audience. Demographics is the systematic study of the quantifiable characteristics of a large group such as gender, socioeconomic status, religious and political affiliation, family status, age and ethnic or cultural background.

(iv) Choosing your topic

In choosing a topic there are several strategies that one could use in generating ideas that could aid you make a judicious choice. These include:

1. Finding a topic that intrigues you.

This will motivate you to research. You could do this by writing down a list of topics that impress you. These could be about personal experiences, controversial issues, current events, hobbies or beliefs and values.

2. Brainstorming the topic

Brainstorming involves amassing information and thinking creatively about the topic.

3. Narrowing the topic

You narrow the selection of the topic to:

- (a) One that you are interested in and which you know something about
- (b) Meets the criteria set out for you
- (c) A topic that the audience will find worthwhile.

These should aid you break your topic to a more specific and manageable one

(v) Developing a thesis statement

The state conveys the main idea or the core assumption about the topic. The thesis statement must summarize what you want the audience to get your of your speech.

(vi) Researching on the topic

A good speech must offer listeners something new, some information, insight, perspective or idea that they didn't have before. Such original thoughts are usually the product of deep reflection and careful research. The research information should help support the points that are made thus strengthening the message and making it credible.

There are many types of information to be considered. These include:

Expert testimony, lay testimony, statistics and anecdotes.

You can research for supporting materials by:

- Talking to people
- Searching the literature
- Googling

Materials gathered should be evaluated to determine:

Credibility of sources in terms of their up-to-datedness, accuracy, relevance, compellingness and reliability.

ETHICAL CONSIDERATIONS

A responsible public speaker is guided by ethics. This means being responsible for ensuring that proper credit is given to other people's ideas, data and research that you have incorporated into your presentation. This could be achieved by:

- Recognizing and avoiding plagiarism which is the crime of presenting someone else's words, ideas or intellectual property as your own either intentionally or unintentionally. This is done by carefully keeping track of where all material comes from.
- Taking accurate notes, keep a record of every single reference to avoid plagiarism.
- Run a bibliography. This is a list of resources you have consulted which contains the following information
 - Types of source (magazine, book, interview etc)
 - Complete name of each author or origin of the source if the author is not named.
 - Title and subtitle of the source
 - The publication data of the source
 - For books publisher and city of publication and for web resources the complete URL.
 - Page numbers for the materials used and for the entire work being cited of ideas about your topic

CHARACTERISTICS OF EFFECTIVE SPEAKING

1. Have insight, i.e. they know their strengths and weaknesses.
2. Know their audience.
3. Know why they are speaking and what they hope to achieve
4. Always practice or do a dry run of their speeches
5. Take the speech as if it was a performance. They know they have to work hard to keep their listeners interested in what they have to say.
6. Make a post-speech evaluation or critique their presentations. They believe this will feed into the next speech and lead to a better performance

5.5 SUMMARY



This week we have navigated public speaking as an interactive skill by looking at the process, the role and type of audience, the process of making a speech and the ethical considerations of public speaking.

5.6 ACTIVITY



5.6.1 Think of a memorable speech you have witnessed either in person or through the media. What was the purpose of the speaker's speech? In your opinion show how they were either successful or unsuccessful in their endeavor? How did the speech change the way you felt?

5.6.2 Find out your university's policy on plagiarism. State acts that constitute plagiarism. Specify the outlined punishments. Explain how plagiarism is enforced.

5.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



5.7.1 Choose an appropriate topic that interests you.

- a) Use brainstorming to amass information
- b) On a piece of paper create a web



5.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990). *A University course in Academic Communication Skills*: Nairobi, Nairobi University Press.

O'Hair, D. and Wiemann, M. (2009). *Real Communication: An introduction*. Boston, Bedford/St. Marks

WEEK 6

6.0 READING SKILLS

6.1 INTRODUCTION



Reading is a vital skill as access to most information is through reading. Through exposure and motivation one can promote proficiency underlying the skill. In this section we examine what reading entails, why we read and what we read as a way of interrogating the reading skill.

6.2 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week you should be able to:



6.2.1 Describe the nature of the reading process

6.2.2 Evaluate the purpose of reading

6.3.3 Distinguish between the different types of reading



6.3 GLOSSARY

Skimming: Light reading meant to help the reader determine the gist of the reading selection

Scanning: Reading in search of specific information

Intensive reading: Reading of normally short texts to determine aspects of meaning the writer's intention

Extensive reading: Reading large amount of reading often meant to cultivate culture

Light reading. Superficial kind of reading that is not aimed at understanding any text in depth.

WEEK 6: LECTURE 1- 1 HOUR

6.4 DEFINITION OF READING

Reading is a process whereby one looks at and understands what has been written. Reading involves many subskills -literal comprehension, inferential comprehension, interpretation, evaluation and critical appreciation. Reading is:

- It is both a physical and mental activity.
- It requires attention and thought.
- It involves the participation (reader) emotionally and intellectually.
- It involves interpretation of the written (printed) symbols.

Readers interpret texts differently. This implies that readers put meaning into what they read. The meaning that a reader may put on a piece of writing is determined by several factors.

Reading is a very versatile activity because it can take place almost anywhere: in a classroom, library, house, vehicle, train etc. The university student needs to develop good reading techniques and habits in order to be an effective and efficient reader.

Purpose for reading

a) Reading for pleasure/entertainment

Many people today complain about loneliness. A book or some other reading material provides very good company without the demands on your life that we associate with a friend's company. While reading for entertainment, you will get some information. The reading will therefore have served a dual purpose. The materials that are read for pleasure are: novels, storybooks, cartoons, magazines, sections of newspapers and many others.

b) Acquiring knowledge and information

If you read widely on all subjects, you will be more and better informed.

It has been rightly said that or "knowledge is power". If you have good knowledge about issues or on how to do things, you will certainly be successful in your endeavours. Good general knowledge will also help to socialize with people from all walks of life. Try to read widely on all emerging issues be they social, cultural, economic, political or technical. A lot of information on a wide variety of issues is currently being circulated via internet. You need to learn how to use. The internet so that you can access the information, retrieve and read it.

c) Reading for academic purpose

The university is the place where the highest level of learning takes place. University students, their lecturers and other scholars are avid readers- often referred to as academicians. Students are expected to master knowledge in their subjects. To attain this mastery, they need to read very widely on the subjects, conduct library research, analyse information and report on it in form of term papers. This way, you create further reading materials and hence knowledge. Materials that can be read for academic information are: textbooks, reference books, general and specialist journals, magazines and special sections of newspapers.

d) Reading for instructions or directions

We are living in the do it yourself age. Manufacturers of goods of all sorts carefully prepare operational manuals and package them with the goods. It is necessary that the users who will buy those goods are able to read and follow instructions for maximum benefit. At one time or another, you will be such a user. You therefore need to be a keen and effective reader.

WEEK 6 LECTURE 2 -1HOUR

Types of Reading

There are several types/ways/techniques of reading. They are previewing, skimming, scanning, word for word reading, light reading, intensive/study/critical reading and extensive reading.

(a) Previewing

When you are previewing, you jack over a text to determine its relevance and worth for a specific reading purpose. It helps the reader to predict in a very short time, what a reading text is all about and to determine its degree of relevance. You then can decide whether to read the book or not or whether to read a part or parts of it and which part.

Previewing a text is done by looking at the following:

- i. Front matter: title, forward/preface or introduction; table of contents.
- ii. Back matter: blurbs, index, glossary, bibliography.
- iii. The book itself: Headings, subheadings, organizations, language, content, diagrams.

b) Skimming

This is a reading strategy used when a reader wants to get the main idea or gist of a text within a very short time. When skimming, you need to read the topic sentences only. The topic sentence is usually the first in a paragraph and expresses the main idea. But sometimes a writer may choose to make the second sentence of a paragraph the topic sentence. On rare occasions, a writer may make the last sentence of the paragraph the topic sentence. This is determined by the writing style that a writer may adapt to convey certain information. You can skim through a long text or even a book in just a few minutes and get the gist of the text.

c) Scanning

In this type of reading you are searching for particular items of information. You are interested in these items only and not everything in the text. The text involved in scanning are usually as follows:

- What? Decide exactly what information you are looking for.
- Where? Decide where to find the information you want.
- How? When you find the information you want, read it carefully but do not

concern yourself with the rest of the information.

d) Word by word reading;

This reading technique is used when one is learning how to read for the first time. You might use this technique if you decide to learn a new language. Word for word reading means trying to understand fully one word or phrase at a time, it is a slow reading technique. Scientists and mathematicians use it when they are studying processes and formulae.

e) Light reading

This is the way most people read most of the time, there is neither an attempt to digest the material that is read nor is there any attempt to assess it critically. This type of reading tends to be fast and superficial. It is the type of reading most people apply when reading newspapers and novels. This kind of reading is not recommended for study purposes but you can use the technique when reading for leisure.

WEEK 6 LECTURE 3 – 1 HOUR

f) Intensive reading

Intensive reading entails content study, of what is read in some detail and study of language in which the material is written. Intensive calls for a deep and thorough understanding of what is written. The concern is with detailed comprehension of short texts-typically not more than five hundred words in length. Intensive reading implies approaching a text under the guidance of a task (or a teacher) which forces the student to pay analytical, critical and evaluative. It is the type of reading a university student engages in when studying.

To be an efficient intensive reader, you need to get rid of some bad reading habits:

- i. Trying to understand every word that you read by consulting the dictionary from time to time. Slows down reading and interferes with concentration.
- ii. Vocalization or moving lips as you read. This slows down reading to a speaking pace and is therefore inefficient.

- iii. Retrogression. This means reading forwards and backwards. It hinders comprehension unless you are doing word by word reading.
- iv. Pointing - using a finger, pencil or pen over what is being read by nodding the head. This is not only slow but also clumsy

Extensive Reading

Extensive Reading might be said to emphasize the process whereby a student comes to understand a book without fully grasping every point of it, or even trying to. Strategies such as skimming and scanning are obviously important here, but there are also others such as recognising the contribution of 'plot' or 'argument' to understanding a text. Extensive reading usually involves long texts or books with many pages or just wide reading. The objectives of extensive reading are: to promote enjoyment of reading, to provide various experiences, and to provide wide exposure to written English in use.

BAD READING HABITS

Improved comprehension, speed and enjoyment almost always result from eliminating bad reading habits. Proportional reading can quickly help individuals and the following bad habits:

- Poor decoding
- Poor automaticity
- Poor fluency which includes rushing past commas instead of pausing which can produce situational dyslexia.
- Guessing when stumped instead of backing up and sounding out text
 - At an individual word
 - Cognitive protection as one reads regularly.
- No or poor use of auditory memory
- No or poor use of visual memory
- Failing to think about the meaning of sentences and their relationship.
- Failing to sense musicality of sentences
- Not hearing an inner voice
- Sub-vocalization
- Reading too fast
- Physical discomfort while reading.

6.5 SUMMARY



This week we have examined the importance of reading to a university student by defining it and looking at the reading process. We have also looked at the types of reading and bad habits which could hinder the comprehension of a reading selection.

6.6 ACTIVITY



6.6.1 Pick any novel which you are familiar with. Write down the main characters, the minor characters. Describe the event that links the characters.

6.6.2 Read any national newspaper that circulates on a daily basis.

i. Write down the headlines of the items in the first ten pages.

6.6.3 In your note book state the differences between the two reading activities in 6.6.2 (i) above

6.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



6.7.1 Provide examples of the following types of reading:

- a) Skimming
- b) Scanning
- c) Light reading
- d) Word for word reading



6.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) a University course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi, Nairobi University Press.

WEEK 7

7.0 READING STRATEGIES

7.1 INTRODUCTION



This section is designed to enable you realise that reading may not achieve the purpose for which it is intended. We may not all comprehend all the text that we read, however with some effort this can be overcome. During the week we look at factors that determine the readability of a text, techniques that could aid in the comprehension of a text and reading non-linear texts.

7.2 OBJECTIVES

By the end of the week you should be able to:



- 7.2.1 discuss factors that contribute to text readability
- 7.2.2 examine strategies that you could employ in comprehending texts
- 7.2.3 Highlight the uses of non-linear texts in comprehending information.



7.3 GLOSSARY

- 7.3.1 Text readability:- An attempt to match the reading level of written material with the understanding level of the reader.
- 7.3.2 Inference:- The conclusions a reader draws about the unsaid based on what is actually said while reading.
- 7.3.3 Prediction:- A strategy in which readers use information from a text including titles, headings, pictures and diagrams and their own personal

experiences to anticipate what they are about to read or what comes next.

7.4 TEXT READABILITY

This is the extent to which it is possible to read a text and comprehend its content. It refers to the relative simplicity or difficulty in understanding, interpreting, evaluating or applying the information in a text.

Factors determining text readability

1. The language level.

This includes new words and other technical or scientific terms which one is not familiar with. It may also refer to sentence structures, stylistic devices, register, idiomatic expressions used etc.

2. Content

This refers to the subject matter. It could be elementary or advanced depending on the level of education of the reader.

3. Layout

This is the arrangement or structure of the text in terms of chapters, units, paragraphs and even sentences. The way a text is structured makes it possible to follow the trend of the writer.

4. Print size

The size of print, the font size are also important factors. Very small print is uncomfortable and tiring to read.

How to comprehend a difficult text

1. Vocabulary

One can understand new words, difficult terms, phrases or expressions without using a dictionary. This can be done by:

- looking at the context clues
- getting synonyms
- using predictions
- using inference

2. Predictions

This is when one reads to confirm expectations. This technique is highly motivating and gives one a purpose for reading.

3. Inference/implications

This is 'reading' beyond what you can see in print, on pages. It calls for reasoning, reaching an opinion, making conclusions. It is important when answering questions on meanings of words, phrases as used in the passage and also identification of the connotations of different sentences.

4. The SQ3R reading method

This is a special skill useful in reading. The abbreviation SQ3R stands for the steps that one reader follows while using this method of reading. These are.

a) Survey

- Glance over the titles, chapter headings to establish the subject of the text.
- Read the whole of the first paragraph; in case of a passage
- Read the first sentence in each subsequent paragraph
- Read the whole of the last paragraph
- in case of a book, read chapter summaries or conclusions.

b) Question

- Turn the first heading into a question. This will arouse your curiosity and thereby increase your comprehension.
- The question will also make important points stand out at the same time, explanatory details will be recognised.
- In case of passages or even some books, you could also look at the questions in the text.

c) Read

- Read the text-go over it -to establish the subject matter, the writers approach and get the general gist. Try to obtain quick answers for the questions you raised in "b" above.

d) Revise

At this stage, you get into active reading and search -for information and answers to specific questions. You ought to make notes.

-Here, you should be guided by the topic sentences and the supporting evidence as well as the discourse markers. They will show you the trend of argument of the author.

4) Recite

- Having read and revised, now look away from the text and try to recall and recite the answers to the questions raised or thought about.
- Use your own words and cite some examples
- If you can recite, you know what is in the book; if you can't glance over the section again.
- An excellent way to recite from memory is to write down brief notes or phrases in outline form, on a piece of paper.

NB: stages 3 and 4 should enable you to make good notes.

SUMMARY WRITING

All cases of summary writing involve identifying the main ideas, facts or arguments found in a given text. The text may be your own or someone else's. E.g. at the end of a long essay, you may want to summarise your main points as you conclude your discussion of a given issue. For you to summarise a text, it is important to understand the text thoroughly. A text may deal with various issues. Are you interested in all of them? How detailed is your summary to be? Perhaps you only need to capture the gist of the writer's claim or argument. Once your purpose is clear, you take the necessary notes.

- Check your notes against the information provided in the text until you are satisfied that you have all the information you require, and nothing that you do not need for the purpose of your summary.
- Then, put the text away and, using your own words, write the summary in essay form.
- Unless you have a word limit for the summary, in which case in order to ensure that you are within the limit, now you only need to look at your essay critically to check such things as language use (choice of words' punctuation and the logical flow of ideas.

TYPES OF NON LINEAR TEXTS

Non-linear texts include charts, diagrams, graphs, tables, figures etc. In academic writing, data is frequently presented by means of non-linear texts. In writing essays or term papers, the use of graphs and charts can make your work more attractive, interesting and informative.

1) Tables

This is one of the most straight ways of presenting information, although not necessarily the easiest to interpret. The data can be used to make certain conclusions, comparisons and summaries.

2) Bar, graphs

This is the simplest kind of graph to interpret. It is usually very visual with various colours or shading to give a quick overall picture to the reader. They are mainly suitable when comparing and contrasting two or more groups. The bar graphs should be drawn proportionally and should be accurate.

There can be more than one set of figures represented in one bar graph. In this case, the key should indicate proper colours used to distinguish sets of information. E.g. pg. 112.

3) Histogram

The term histogram is often incorrectly interchanged with bar graph, but there is some difference. Histograms are often used to show frequency of occurrence, or to show how common something is over a given range, (e.g. time). They are commonly used in the representation of annual rainfall or temperature for a country or town. Here, the divisions will be conveniently twelve for the months and will enable the reader to make instant comparisons, even before studying actual numbers on the axes. E.g. pg 114

4) Pie charts

Mainly suitable when showing the difference among various types of things or groups. The various measures are given either in degrees or percentages.

5) Line graphs

These are suitable when the information given (or being represented) doesn't require comparison and contrast. The information only shows how particular figures are represented (particularly if there's fluctuation). However, comparison and contrasts are possible when there is more than one line graph in one representation. These are called

combination graphs and involve the superimposition of one on another using the same axis or axes. They save space and also enable the reader to immediately compare one set of figures with another. E.g, pg. 116.

6) Pyramids

These are very useful when comparing and contrasting two sets of figures: for example the male and the female at a given time.

The pyramid has two sets of figures being compared or contrasted put in the same e.g. one on the left, the other on the right.

Note: Interpretation of non-linear texts:

The following points are important in the analysis/interpretation of non-linear texts

- i. the key
- ii. the scale used
- iii. the proper representation of the texts e.g. the X and Y axes for graphs,
- iv. Labeling the texts accurately and correctly
- v. Critical reading/interpretation i.e.using inference and implication and making comments on what you can interpret from texts.
- vi. A summary of important information and comment covering the whole text.

7.5 SUMMARY



This section has dealt with factors that inhibit the comprehension of texts. These are the factors that make the text readable. A number of techniques that could be used in reading to aid comprehension of texts have also been examined. The section has also dealt with non-linear texts including tables, bar graphs, histograms, pie charts, line graphs and pyramids

7.6 ACTIVITY



7.6.1 Read the story “Tekayo” in the anthology Land without Thunder by Grace Ogot. Examine how the writer has made the story easily readable

7.6.2 Look for any two versions of the book of Genesis in the Bible. Show why which version is easier to read. Provide examples of words used differently.

7.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



7.7.1 With the aid of relevant examples, examine FIVE factors that can make the comprehension of a text difficult.

7.7.2 Describe the use of SQ3R as a reading strategy

7.7.3 List down six pre-reading activities which could help you teach a selected reading text.



7.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) University Course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi
University of Nairobi Press.

WEEK 8

8.0 WRITING SKILLS

8.1 INTRODUCTION



This week we embark on the skill of writing. Writing is a skill that you should be proficient in. We look at how writing enhances the ability to communicate effectively and how to become a better learner of the written language. A student who is not a proficient writer will find it difficult to teach writing effectively and efficiently.

8.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week you should be able to:

- 8.2.1 Examine the process of writing
- 8.2.2 Discuss causes of inappropriate writing
- 8.2.3 Appraise features of different forms of writing.



8.3 GLOSSARY

8.3.1 Vagueness - The imprecise or unclear use of language. Haziness, cloudiness
fuzziness or lack of definition.

8.3.2 Appropriateness – Suitable or proper use of language or style

8.3.3 Cohesion - The use of repetition, pronouns, transitional expressions and other devices called cohesive clues to guide readers and show how the parts of a composition relate to one another.

8.4 THE WRITING SKILL

Writing employs the use of words, sentences punctuation and paragraphing. These are the raw materials which enable writers to communicate accurately, correctly and appropriately. A good writer commands a wide vocabulary. They can use the words efficiently and creatively to communicate the desired message.

SENTENCES

A good writer uses a variety of sentences structure - simple, compound and complex sentences

The sentences communicate the desired message clearly and precisely. The sentences are complete, meaningful and grammatical, weaknesses to be avoided include:

Vagueness

The meaning of sentences should be clear

Ambiguity

Every sentence should communicate one meaning

Unnecessary repetition

Unless for emphasis an idea should not be repeated

Punctuation

Punctuation marks ensure comprehensive expression of meaning. Good writing makes use of correct punctuation

Paragraphing

A paragraph is a group of sentences that work together to develop an idea. A good paragraph has a topic sentence that introduces the central idea in the paragraph. Topic sentence is succeeded by several supporting sentences that build on the central idea. Finally, a concluding sentence summarizes the idea in the whole paragraph.

"The class was in total disarray. Books and pieces of paper were scattered all over. The desks had been turned upside down .The smell of dust filled the class. A feeling of nausea washed over me from the thought that no one took upon themselves to clean the class .One got the impression that the inhabitants of the class were very clumsy

1. Topic sentences- it introduces the idea of the classroom
2. The next four lessons are supporting sentences. They build on the idea of the chaotic classroom
3. The last sentences summarizes the idea of the chaotic room

FEATURES OF GOOD WRITING

Accuracy

The correctness in sentence construction, diction, spelling and punctuation, this can be enhanced through:

Listening to proficient users of English

Reading a variety of well-written material

Practicing difficult language structures

Careful proofreading of written work

Coherence

The linking together of ideas to ensure a smooth and logical flow, It is achieved through

Use of transitional words and phrases, these ensure readability

Organization of all related ideas together to form paragraphs

Avoiding unnecessary repetition

Organizing the text in a conventional format

Appropriateness

This is determined by its purpose and readership. Good writing is aimed at making the content and style suitable for the readership and the purpose of the writing.

FACTORS THAT CONTRIBUTE TO APPROPRIATENESS

Relevance

The purpose determines the relevance.

Balance

Good writing gives emphasis and focus to the main aspects while giving less emphasis to the minor aspects

Style

- Writing has two aspects form and content
- Content is the subject matter / information being communicated
- Form is the style / way the information is communicated style is determined by the form of writing, the purpose and target audience

Register

The use of appropriate language in specific situation

Handwriting

It gives an impression of the writer .A good handwriting creates a favourable image of the writer in terms of neatness and organization in the reader

Handwriting problems

- Poor letter formation
- Inappropriate spacing between letters
- Failure to distinguish between small and capital letters
- Writing outside the lines
- Variation in the size of letter



8.5 SUMMARY

This week we have looked at the writing process. We have talked about the features of good writing and examined habits that we could avoid in order to become proficient writers.

8.6 ACTIVITY



8.5.1 Read the section on writing and in your own judgment show how you could achieve the following:

- a) Cohesion and coherence
- b) Appropriateness
- c) Relevance

8.5.2 Write down 10 words that could act as sign posts to a reader of a written text.

8.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



1. Highlight 5 challenges one could experience when writing an essay
2. Discuss 5 factors that could lead to vagueness in writing.



8.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) University Course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi University of Nairobi Press.

WEEK 9

9.0 PERSONAL WRITING

9.1 INTRODUCTION



Having looked the writing process we now turn our focus on various forms of writing. Examples of these include diaries, reminders, personal journals, curriculum vitae, recipes, packing list and shopping list. These forms of writing will be found useful even long after we are through with school. They adhere to formats that are conventional and these are the formats we want to focus on.

9.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week you should be able to:

- 9.2.1 Write your own diary, memo, etc.
- 9.2.2 Highlight the features of the different forms of writing.



9.3 GLOSSARY

9.3.1 Creative writing – Any writing that goes outside the normal bounds of professional, journalistic, academic or technical units.

9.3.2 Personal writing - This is a subjective kind of writing based on personal opinions or feelings rather than facts or evidence.

9.4 FORMS OF WRITING: PERSONAL WRITING

These include diaries, reminders and personal journals are related, they are kept to enable one to be organized, keep appointment and maintain an accurate record off events.

Diary

A book or electronic gadget with marked spaces for each day of the four with one can write down appointment and things to be done in the future.

Book diaries have provision for contact details of friends and relatives

- They provide a variety of information
- Diaries aids better time management by scheduling appointments
- They should be brief at times in the form of phrases only vital details are added

Personal Journal

A written account of outstanding experiences or events one has gone through the course of the day

It is entered after an event

It is private and honest record of the events that annoyed excited or embarrassed are in the course of the day

Curriculum Vitae

A record of one's personal information educational background, working / professional experience, interest and any other useful information that may help one secure a job a scholarship or admission

There are various formats

Curriculum vitae

Personal details (8 details)

Education Year	Institution	Qualifications
----------------	-------------	----------------

University

Secondary

Primary

Work Experience

Interest / Hobbies

Referees (a person who is known to you but who is not your relative and can provide information about you. Indicate their name, address and phone numbers.

Recipe

A set of instruction that gives guidance on how to prepare a meal, contains the quantities of the required ingredients, the method of cooking, temperature and duration of time and the number of people who can be served.

Packing List and Shopping List

They remind one what they want to buy or pack Shopping lists help avoid spontaneous or impulsive purchase

Packing list

Item	Type	Quantity
------	------	----------

Clothes

Footwear

Toothpaste

Tooth brush

Towel

Soap

Shopping list

Item	Quantity	Price
------	----------	-------

Social writing

Informal letters, invitations, congratulations notes, condolences, E-mails, short text messages, fax, instructions to family members / friends

Informal letters

- Letters to friends and relatives
- The relationship between the writer and the receiver determines the degree of informal language to be used
- The format is the same
- Grammatically written/ well punctuated/correct spelling
- Address of the writer ,the date of writing ,the salutation, body conclusion and writers

Invitations

Either a letter or card, letters take the form of informal letters Cards contain only important details.

The function, the date, time, venue, expected guest, the address of the sender

1. It is written, the reason for the note the sender
2. Say congratulations early
3. State the good news in first through sending
4. Tone of sincerity
5. Should be brief

Condolences

Note sent to people who are grieving to console them

It expresses ones sorrow and comforts the grieving and offer assistance

Electronic Mail (E-Mail)

System of sending written messages using computers and some mobile phones it is fast and efficient than letter writing

From Name and Email address

To

Cc

Subject

Content

1. Open an account with a web based mail program. Some free web

programmes include yahoo, Hotmail, Gmail

2. Use grammatical sentences, correct punctuation and spelling
3. Avoid capital letters
4. Clear and precise

Short Text Message

A service that allows mobile phone users to send and receive text messages on their phones.

Use abbreviation that the receiver will understand.

Facsimile Transmission (Fax)

System of sending and receiving documents electronically through telephone wires

Fax machines make a copy of printed paper messages and delivers the message as a print out to the receivers fax address which is entered as part of the transmission process

Information required:

- Sender's name
- Senders fax number
- Receiver's name
- Receivers fax number
- Number of pages of the document to be sent

Instructions to family members /friends

1. Use simple imperative form
2. Number the instruction
3. Use courteous language
4. Instructions should be clear and concise

Summaries

A shorter version of content read or heard aimed at extracting relevant significant aspects of the text expressed clearly, concisely, coherently and grammatically.

- Read the text
- Write down the main points in continuous prose
- Revise the summary
- Use fewer structural words to achieve word limit

Descriptive Essays

- Saying what an entity is like
 - Creates vivid images of the subject
 - Appeal to the five senses
1. Seeing - colour, size, shape, complexion
 2. Hearing - noise, silence, whisper, music
 3. Touch - temperature, texture, dustiness
 4. Taste - sweetness, bitterness, sourness
 5. Smell - Aroma & odours

Expository /Explanatory

- Aims at expounding on an idea or passing information on a given topic
- Based on actual facts
- Facts are reported and explained
- Give readers insights into issues being explained.
- Requires a good grasp of the subject

INTRODUCTION - focus on the main idea

BODY- builds on the idea in the introduction

CONCLUSION- summarize the idea advanced

Argumentative

Discussion of a controversial topic gives both sides of an argument and arriving at a conclusion based on the side with stronger points

- Requires a good grasp of the subject
- Orderly presentation

Reports

An account given upon investigator after performing a task

Formats

Title / Heading

Terms of Reference

The purpose of the report the person or office which commissioned the writing, the specific issuers and time frames

Procedure

The method through which the information is the report was collected —> interviews, administration of questionnaires, visits to scenes etc

Findings

Presentation of facts gathered upon analysis of the information collected

- Facts should be numbered
- Illustration - graphs, pie charts and any other form of graphic presentation can be used

CONCLUSION

Indicates the action to be taken to solve the problem based on the findings and should be realistic

SIGNING

The authenticity could be signed by the secretary and chairman or all the members

REVIEWS

- An article on a book; film, publication or performance which highlights the subject of the review and offers the reviewers assessment of the merit of work
- It is aimed at arousing the interest of the reader in the reviewed work

DETAILS OF A REVIEW

- Title of the book, film, publication performance Name of the author, producer, director or main action Name of the publisher/producer Year of publication/production
- The cost of the publication, watching or performance or purchase of the video tape
- Name of the reviewer
- The theme of the material
- The strong qualities of the materials
- The target audience usage, profession etc.
- Overall evaluation - final recommendation about the material under review

GUIDELINES

- Read /watch the material
- The expression should be objective based on the material
- Avoid too much detail

SYNOPSES

A summary of a long text document film or performance which mainly gives an outline of the plot of the text and aims at giving the main ideas of the text

It is written in the present tense using short complete sentences

QUESTIONNAIRES

A form of gathering information with a set of questions to be filled in by respondents

It bears in title of the study and has an introduction which explains the purpose and provides instructions on how it should be handled. The item in the questionnaires relates to the purpose and provides instructions on how it should be handled. The items in the questionnaire relate to the purpose of the study and could include both open ended and close ended questions.

With close ended questions, the respondents are provided with a choice while open added questions do not suggest responses.

CREATIVE WRITING

This includes imaginative compositions, poems, dialogues plays short stories, auto biographies and biographies.

INSTITUTIONAL WRITING

Public notices ,inventories, letters of apology, notifications of minutes, agenda, minutes of meetings, speeches, business letters, posters and adverts

SPEECHES

A formal talk given to an audience on a specific occasion

CONSIDERATION

The purpose - inform, console, entertain, persuade. Those determine the details to include and the choice of language.

The audience - The listeners determines their expectation, education background. Whatever is to be addressed in the speech which they know, age, beliefs in the subject of the speech, these determine the content. The occasion-determines the tone Time available

QUALITIES OF A GOOD SPEECH

A good opening, focused body and vulnerable closing

Opening- Acknowledge the various people in the audience beginning with the most distinguished.

Body- remains focused on the purpose, occasion and audience- provide provoking questions and give short anecdotes

9.5 SUMMARY



As a communication skill writing is key. For communicative purposes a number of critical features of writing have been highlighted. Writing can be personal creative institutional or functional in type. Each type of writing puts certain demands on the writer. These demands define their characteristics

9.6 ACTIVITY



9.6.1 Collect the following items from friends and institutions/organizations

- a) Diaries
- b) Journals
- c) Reminders
- d) Memos
- e) Minutes
- f) Recipes

Study their contents and write down what you notice about each. Compare this with what is contained in this module. What are the differences in the format of each?

9.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



9.7.1 Write proceedings of a meeting of a group in which you are a secretary showing the people who were present, what was discussed, the resolutions and what those who did not attend the meeting.



9.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) University Course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi;
University of Nairobi Press.

WEEK 10

10.0 LIBRARY SKILLS

WEEK 10 LECTURE 1

10.1 INTRODUCTION



Library is one facility that all students have to visit to have a feel of private reading atmosphere. Basically, there are numerous opportunities for self-study that libraries offer. Unless you are clear on the skills required one may end up only accessing a small negligible percentage of the resources in a library. It is therefore critical that you are aware of the library skills such as the definition, the types of libraries, the classification scheme, the sections of a library, using the library catalogue and previewing skills among others. These are skills that we want to embark on this week.

10.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week you should be able to:

- 10.2.1 Locate books without using a reading list.
- 10.2.2 Prepare a list of books that you have bought.
- 10.2.3 Design a card catalogues for your home library



10.3 GLOSSARY

Library, library types, library sections, library classification system.

Library catalogue system.

10.4 WHAT IS A LIBRARY?

A library is an information Centre that facilitates the access to and use of information in form of books non-book material and computerised databases. It is therefore a place where information is acquired, systematically organized and disseminated to users.

Library Skills

These are techniques that enable a library user to make efficient use of the library and reap maximum benefits from it. These skills include appreciating the role of a university library distinguishing the library classification system, using catalogues, doing book bibliographies.

Role of a University Library

In a university, the role of a library is to support teaching, learning, and research by providing information resources and services. It supports these activities by providing:

- Relevant and up-to date information
- Useful resources as required by the users
- Services in a relaxed and good atmosphere for study

A university student is expected to independently seek information, information is a vital commodity in any career, and knowing how and where to find it is important.

TYPES OF LIBRARIES

Libraries are categorized by the purposes they serve. Tire main types are summarized as follows:

1. Public

Public libraries serve the general public at all levels. Their aim is to provide information over the whole range of human knowledge, promote culture and play a positive part in encouraging an active use of leisure and recreational time. Examples of public libraries are the Kenya National Library Services (KNLS) and the Macmillan Library.

2. Academic Libraries

Academic, libraries are found in various institutions of learning but with similar aims, in institutions of higher learning such as the universities, colleges and polytechnics, their main aim is to support learning, teaching and research activities. In primary and secondary schools they form the basis for wide reading and references. The purposes, services, equipment and other physical facilities of these libraries are determined by the nature of the curriculum and size of the faculty and students.

3. National Libraries

The main function of a national library is to ensure that all the publications of a particular country are acquired and preserved for posterity. The law requires that publishers deposit copies of all materials published in the country with the national library. National libraries also purchase books published in other countries. Other functions of a national, library are:

- Production of a current bibliography
- Compile union catalogues
- Provision of national reference service
- Publishing
- Research and development in librarianship and information studies.

Examples of national libraries are the British library. Library of Congress and the Kenya National Library Services. The Kenya National Library Services serves % both as a public as well as national library.

4. Special libraries

These are libraries that serve specific subject fields. They include libraries in government ministries, parastatals, research institutes, industrial and commercial concerns and international bodies. Examples include ICIPE, ILARD; KIE, ICRAF, AMREF, UNESCO and Bankers' Institute Libraries.

5. Digital Libraries

These are mainly accessed through computers with internet facilities. They store up to date information of diversified fields. Organized academic institutions

provide such facilities but some charge a fee for the services. At Kenyatta University, such services are provided at the Kenyatta Virtual University (KVU) and the Cyber Cafe.

Exercise

Explain why libraries are important centers for scholars.

SECTIONS OF A LIBRARY

1. Lending, General circulation section

Contains arranged on shelves in a given order. These books may be borrowed or read within. If borrowed, the borrower must use a borrower's card and has to keep the book for a maximum of a specified period of time. He may renew a book after the expiry of a given period if in case it is not needed by another borrower. These books may also read within the library and must be left on reading tables for re-shelving by the library staff. If a borrower wishes to borrow a book that has been borrowed he/she should get a reservation from and you will be informed as soon as the book is returned to the library. However, if you urgently need that book, then it can be recalled.

2. Short Loan Section

Contains books in short supply but on high demand. Such books can be given out for a limited period of time and must be read within the library. Apart from books, this section also contains past papers, publications and selected handouts.

3. Reference Section

This section contains books on general reference or specific references. These are read within the end cannot be taken out of the room. Reference books include encyclopedias, dictionaries, atlases, etc.

4. Periodicals Section

These are of two types:

- i) Current/loose periodical section

Contains materials that are published at periodical intervals e.g. daily, weekly, fortnightly, monthly, half-yearly. These include newspapers, magazines, journals, abstracts, etc.

Bound periodical section

Contains periodicals that have been bound for the purpose of durability. Binding may be of two types:

- Time

- Series

Newspapers and magazines are usually bound on the basis of time while journals and abstracts are usually bound by series.

5. Africana Section/National Collection

This section is normally used by lecturers and post-graduate students; it contains rare books, theses and dissertations.

6. Children's section

This section stocks books that are relevant to the needs of the children.

7. Acquisition Section

This is where new books, magazines are received, title cards or catalogue are also made here.

WEEK 10 LECTURE 2

LIBRARY CLASSIFICATION SYSTEMS

The purpose of classification in the library is to group documents on the same subject (Likeness) together in one class; and to provide formal orderly access to the shelves;. This process is accomplished by using various classification schemes. There are several classification schemes but in this course, only two will be briefly considered. These are

1. Library of Congress Classification Scheme (LCC)
2. Dewey Decimal Classification (DDC)

Library of Congress Classification Scheme

This classification scheme derives its name from the library of congress from which it was devised. It is, however used in many libraries. It consists of twenty-one major classes represented by letters of the Alphabet (A-Z). The classes as follows;

Library of Congress Main Classes

A	General works
B	Philosophy-Religion
C	History-Auxiliary Sciences
D	History (Except America)
E-F	History of the Americas
G	Geography – Anthropology
H	Social Sciences
I	Political Science
K	Law
L	Education
M	Music
N	Fine Arts
P	Language and Literature
Q	Science
R	Medicine
S	Agriculture
T	Technology
U	Military Science
V	Naval Science
Z	Bibliography and Library Science

Source: AMREF (1994:438)

Each of the main classes is further divided into subclasses that represent disciplines (major branches) of the main class. This is done by introducing an additional letter to the main one. The following are the examples of the subclasses in science.

Thus:

Q	Science
QA	Mathematics
QB	Astronomy
QC	Physics
QD	Chemistry
QE	Geology
QH	Natural history (general). Biology (general)
QK	Botany
QL	Zoology
QM	Human anatomy
QP	Physiology
QR	Microbiology

Each subclass is also subdivided further into division that represent the components of the subclass. This is done by introducing an Arabic number to subclass. For example:
QA 76 Mathematics

Dewey Decimal Classification (DDC)

The Dewey Decimal Classification scheme devised by Melvil Dewey is the oldest' and the most widely used in the world. It was first published in 1876. The scheme ; arranges library materials into ten classes using Arabic numerals in the range 000-900. The main general classes are summarized below:

Dewey Decimal Classification Main Classes

000	Generalities
100	Philosophy and related disciplines
200	Religion
300	Social Science
400	Language
500	Pure Science
600	Technology (Applied Sciences)
700	The Arts
800	Literature
900	General geography and history and their auxiliaries

Source: AMREF (1994:214)

These general classes are made more specific by dividing them into ten subclasses. Examples of such classes for pure sciences are as follows.

- 500 Pure Sciences
- 510 Mathematics
- 520 Astronomy and Allied sciences
- 530 Physics
- 540 Chemistry
- 550 Earth Science
- 560 Palentology palaezoology
- 570 Life Science
- 580 Botanical Science
- 590 Zoological Science

For practical purposes, each subclass is further divided into smaller divisions- An example of some of the divisions in physics (530) is as follows:

- 530 Physics
- 539 Modem Physics
- 539.7 Atomic and
- 539.72 . Particle Physics
- 539.722 Ionizing radiations
- 539.722 X and gamma rays

From the above examples, it is easy to see how the precision of each material is reached by division of the classes, subclasses and divisions. It is such divisions that one is able to appropriately use library to gain access to relevant information sources. Such accessibility is also enhanced by knowing references resources as arranged in the reading list. This is discussed in the next section.

10.5 SUMMARY



As an information Centre a library is systematically organized with different types of libraries serving different clients. Furthermore, there are numerous sections of a library namely: general circulation, periodical, short loan, acquisition, children's and the national collection. All these aspects of a library enhance easy access of materials. These are the aspects of a library which we have learnt this week.

10.6 ACTIVITY



10.6.1 List down the different materials you are likely to get in a library.

10.6.2 Review the notes in this module on the sections of a Library. Specify the sections of the library in which the materials you cited in 1 above are likely to be found.

10.6.3 Find out from any librarian how they are able to store materials systematically for easy retrieval.

10.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



- i. Explain how you would locate a library book using a card catalogue.
- ii. Imagine that you have been given a term assignment whose writing demanded you read several books. Write down a list of FIVE books that you might have read.
- iii. Write down titles of two newspapers, two magazines and two journals relevant to your subject(s) that can be found in the University Library.



10.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) University Course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi; University of Nairobi Press.

WEEK 11

11.0 LIBRARY CATALOGUE AND CITATION MODES

11.1 INTRODUCTION



You have previously been introduced to the different sections of a library. You have also learnt about the classification system. In this section we delve into yet other aspects that will enable access library materials by first looking at the catalogue and the types of library catalogue and how you could locate a book using a library catalogue. Further we look at critical skills of library use that include preview and citation of library materials

11.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week you should be able to:

- 11.2.1 Explain the various features of the different types of catalogues
- 11.2.2 Locate a book using either author, title or subject catalogue
- 11.2.3 Write a reference list or a bibliography



11.3 GLOSSARY

Catalogue, card catalogue, book catalogue, microform catalogue, computerized catalogue, author catalogue, subject catalogue and title catalogue.

11.4 WHAT IS A CATALOGUE?

A catalogue is list of available materials in a library arranged in some systematic.

The arrangement facilitates the use of the collections and also acts as a guide to the library's materials. The main uses of the catalogue therefore are to;

- a) Enables a person to find a document of which either the author, the title of the subject is known
- b) Show what the library has by a given author or in a given subject
- c) Show which editions of a particular work are in the library

FORMS OF CATALOGUES

A catalogue can be presented in various forms. The main ones are:

1) *Card Catalogues*

In a card catalogue bibliographic information (details): the author, the title, place of publication, publishers, date of publication, pagination series, subjects and call number are recorded on a 5"X3" (i.e. 12.5 cm X 7.5) catalogue cards. For nearly a century this has been the most common form of catalogue on use, but has now been surpassed by the computer catalogue.

2) *Book Catalogue*

This is the oldest form of library catalogue. It was the dominant form of library catalogue in the 19th century. Entries handwritten, typed or printed on a conventional book type format. Each page of the book carries several entries.

3) *Microform catalogue*

This type of catalogue is produced in either microfilm or microfiche. The entries are greatly reduced and can be read with a microfiche. The microfiche reader signifies and displays information on the screen.

4) *Computerized catalogue*

Computerized libraries store the bibliographic records in computers, such records are accessible-via a computer terminal within the library.

Similarly, those with online catalogue can retrieve records directly from a computer database also via computer terminals in the library.

TYPES OF CATALOGUES

The main types of catalogues found in most libraries:

1) *Author catalogue*

This type of catalogue contains sources with authors names as heading and arranged alphabetically. The author's names may be of persons or corporate bodies.

2) *Authors/Title catalogue*

This is a catalogue with both title and author entries interfiled in one sequence. The entries are also arranged alphabetically.

For example

DT	Mutibwa, P.M
3	African heritage

HD	Odiema
31	Management

PR	Mwagiru
9381.9	the day
M92	Music died

3) *Subject Catalogue*

Like in any other catalogue subject entries are arranged alphabetically according to the subject headings. A subject heading is the word or a group of words under which similar library materials are entered on the subject catalogue. Examples are given below.

Single word subject heading several words subject headings

Botany	Communication in management
Education	Environmental Education
Environment	Family Planning
Ethics	Education and church
Railroads	Business education
Economics	Public Control

Entries on cards

EDUCATION FINANCE	
LB	Noah, H.J.
2824	Education financing and

La	Otiende, James E.
1563	Alternative future in
.08	higher education in the

EDUCATION- AFRICA	
LA	Blackemore, K.
1500	A sociology of education

Title card

L.C Call Number	S	TEACHING AGRICULTURAL SCIENCE	← Title
	531	Logun, EA	← Publisher
Place of Publication	L3	London: Macmillan Publishers	← Yr. of Publication
		1984	← Sub. Readings
Tech. Details		Vii. 128, 27cm	← No. of Copies in the library

vii-introductory pages
128p-no. of pages
27cm- size of the book

Author card

S	LOGUN E.A
531	Teaching Agricultural Science
L3	Logun, E.A London: Macmillan Publishers

HOW TO LOCATE A BOOK USING A CATALOGUE

The following are the steps you would follow to locate a book by its author, title and subject using catalogue.

1. Locating a book by its author

The following are the main steps

- i. Consider the name of the author depending on the type of the author. This may be a personal or corporate author. If the author is personal, the surname comes first, followed by the forenames. For example, Ogeta. David; Kuuya, Masote; Munasinghe, Mohan; Mwangi, Lucy Wambui.

In the case of corporate author, names of institutions and organizations are entered in a direct order. Examples are: Government ministries; African Development Bank, Kenya; Ministry of Education and Human Resource Development.

- ii. Then find the author in the appropriate drawer the Author or Author/Title catalogue
- iii. After you have found the author card, copy the call number of the book
- iv. Locate the book on the shelves using the call number.

2. Locating a book by its title

The following are the steps:

- i. Use the first word of title to find title card in the Title or Author/Title catalogue. The article: "a", "an" and "the" are ignore when they occur before the title. For example: Am introduction biology (ignore "the"); A dictionary f computers ("ignore A") and the Death of God (ignore "the"):
- ii. Find the title of the card in the appropriate drawer of the title catalogue or Author/Title.
- iii. After you have found the title card, copy down the call number of the book.
- iv. By using the call number, proceed to the appropriate bay and locate the book on the shelves using the call number.

3. Locating a book by its subject

The following are the main steps:

- i. Identifying key words from a given-topic. For example, if you are working on information on higher education in Kenya, you formulate the book on the shelves using the call number.
-Education, higher
-Education, Kenya.
- ii. Locate possible subject headings in the drawer in the subject catalogue
- iii. Consider synonymous terms of the subject headings
- iv. Check the relevant records to your topic
- v. Write down bibliographic details of each source identified (i.e. author, title, and the call number, proceed to the relevant bay and located the book on the shelves using the call number.

To assist-users in formulating subject headings, some libraries keep standardized lists of subject headings (Find out this from your library) A list of subject headings consist of terms that are using the call number.

In order for you to locate books on the shelves easily, it is significant to know how books are arranged on the shelves. This is enhanced by descriptions in the next section.

4. Management of library materials

Library materials are physically arranged according to a particular classification scheme by using call numbers. The arrangement is from left to right and top to bottom of each section of the shelf. Materials with the same class number are further sub-arranged by authors' surnames in alphabetical order. The call number is therefore used for the arrangement and retrieval of library materials on and out of the shelves.

Such arrangement is shown in the figure below:

Classified sequence

Question: why do some library users spend more time than others looking for a particular book in the library

From the figure above, it is easy to see the arrangement in the sequence, which has been made easier by use of call number. A call number is a symbol combining the class number and an author mark. The author mark is usually the initial letter of the author's surname, preceded by a dot and then followed by one or two numerals.

For Example

} Is a call number.

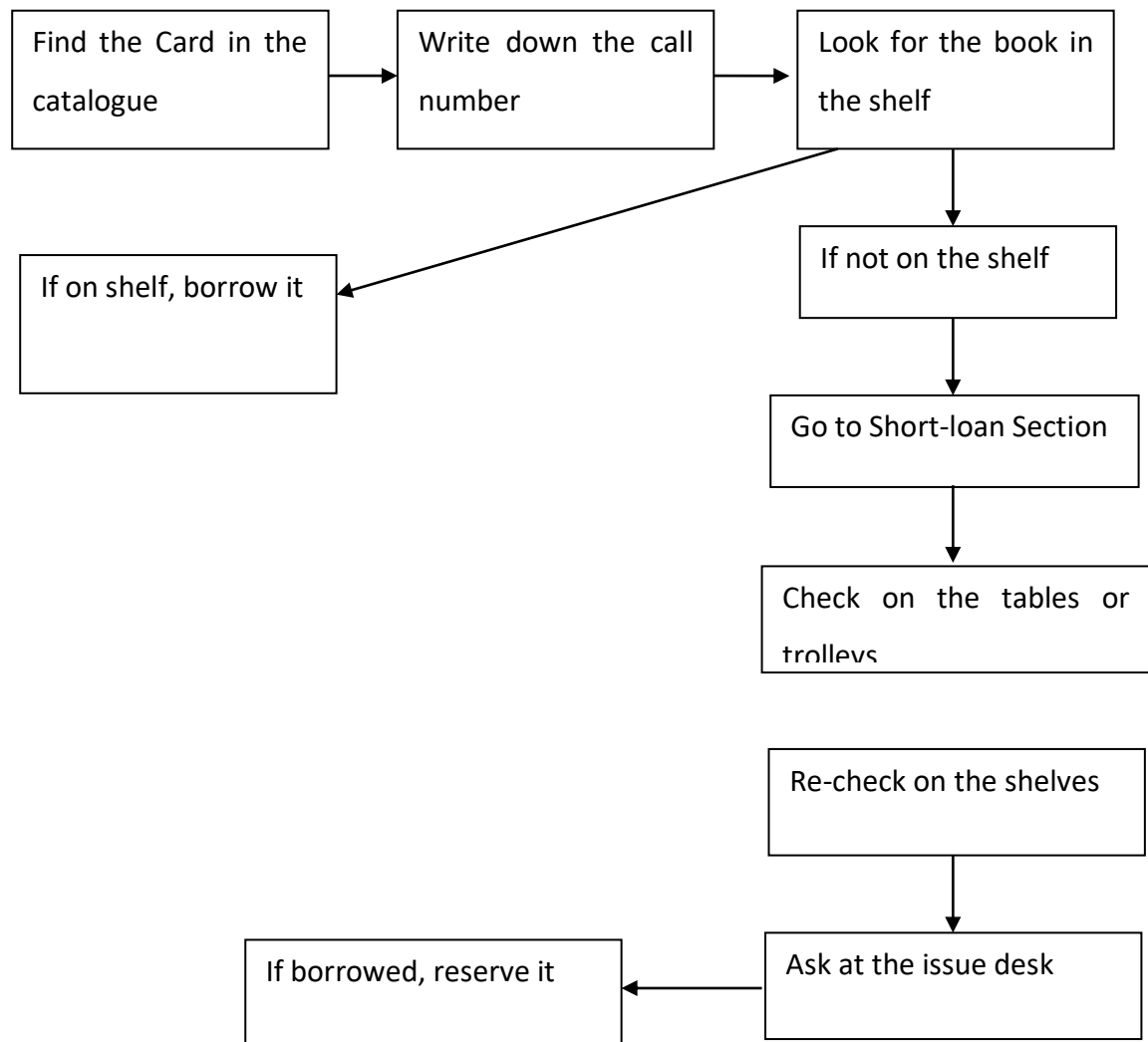
For full identification of the book, the title may be given. Hence.

7c Computers and Informatics in developing Countries

Procedure of locating a book in the library

- i. Identify the correct catalogue/computer (subject, author, subject)
- ii. Accesses and writes down the call number of the material] (Class/branch)
- iii. Using the class/branch number, identifies the correct shelf e.g. P.E. for Linguistics.
- iv. Searches for the material on the shelves using the book/author number.
- v. If the material is found on the shelf then of course you take it (either to read in the library or borrow it to use it outside the library).
- vi. However, if the material is not available on the shelves yet it is listed as being stocked, in the library, then the reader can do the following:
 - a) Check along the shelves - may be it is misplaced
 - b) Check on the trolley/reading tables
 - c) Check on the short loan section

PROCEDURE FOR LOCATING A BOOK IN THE LIBRARY



Book Preview

- Suppose you have a paper to write. Then you go to the library and find that the subject catalogue has lots of titles on the subject or year paper. What do you do?
- From experience you are aware that there are good and bad publications
- Certainly you would like to base your paper on good i.e reliable sources.
- The question is how are you going to tell just which of these many materials/titles are likely to help you produce a good paper?

- The answer to these questions is “You have to evaluate the library materials/sources i.e. you have to preview materials/sources is based on the following.

Front matter

- a) Comments of the editor (if available)
- b) Statements of such things as aim, scope and methodology which are found in the preface/forward.
- c) Relevance and comprehensiveness of the work as shown by its list of Table of contents
- d) Others are: the title of the book, publication details (publisher, year etc.) author.

Back matter

- a) Appendix
Refers to that part which contains information that is relevant to a topic but does not appear in the actual text. E.g. questionnaire, large maps/diagrams, questions and answers etc.
- b) Index of subjects
-refers to that part which shows the place with sub-titles used in a textbook' along with the pages on which they appear.
- c) Bibliography
-refers to a list of references/reading materials that an author/writer used in writing up his/her work.
-Theses references are listed alphabetically as follows.
 - First, the authors, surname, which is followed by the initials of the author
 - The year of publication follows.
 - the title of the book follows (Should be underlined or written in italics.)
 - the publisher/publishing firm
 - the place where the book was published.

NB: and example, Khamadi S.I.D pg. 19

d) Glossary

-refers to a list of explanation of technical words and scientific terms that one has used in his book.

e) The blurb

- Refers to the back page that has information on the author, what the book is about and other people's comments on the worth of the book.

The book itself

- Since in previewing a book you want to know if the book is relevant to you, then your first impressions of the book's quality (logic, depth, style, visual aids etc) are important
- Visual aids (tables, pictures, diagrams, maps etc) illustrate and enhance the materials hence leading to clear understanding of the book.
- generally the lay out of the text and its organisation. Titles, sub-titles, chronology of information, exhaustiveness.

Citation and Referencing Techniques.

In developing academic argumentation in your essay; you will need to use short form references, referred to as in text citation. These can be either in form of paraphrasing or foot notes. The following are such examples.

(a) In-text citation

This is mainly used to support your ideas

- i) Study by Wekesa **(1995:86)** shows that —
- ii) Wekesa (1995:1) Identifies—
- iii) Recent study (Thuo, 1985) indicates, that—

After the essay is completed, a bibliography is compiled using the sources cited.

(b) Footnote :

These are often explanatory notes given either at the bottom of the page on which they appear or listed at the end of the chapter as endnotes (list of references). They indicate the authority cited or some technical terms that need explanation. They are useful in authenticating writer's statements give guidance for further reading. They also indicate

what will directly quoted by the writer in amplifying some points in the discussion of the centre theme.

Abbreviation for footnotes

- i. **Ibid (Latin Ibidem)** means in the same place e.g. if you cited Mugenda and Mugenda (1999) of p.61 with information relating to intervening variables, and then cite the same source on P.17, the citation can be shortened as **ibid** P.17, instead of writing the full reference Mugenda, O.M. and Mugenda Acts Press, 1999.
- ii. **Op.cit.** This means the work cited. It is used when the same work is cited but other references come between them e.g. Mugenda and Mugenda op.cit P.168.
- iii. **Loc Cit:** This is used to mean "same place" cited and follows a citation that is exactly the same as the one before and appearing on the same page.

In citing a reference, the following parts should be included; author, title of the book (source) or article, city of publication, the publishers and the date of publication. The organization of these parts and the publications involved depend on the type of the style of referencing techniques being used. Thus:

1. American Psychology-Association (APA)

The following is the arrangement for various courses

Book: start - author (surname) their initials, year of publication (in brackets), full stop; title (underlined or in bold etc): full stop; city; colon publishers.

For example

Mugenda, M.O. and Mugenda, A.G. (1999) Research methods: qualitative and quantitative methods. Nairobi. Acts press.

- a) Edited book. Start author of the chapter (surname first then other initials); year (in brackets); full stop; title of the chapter (in " ")
fill in top; in name of the editor (s) (surname first, other initials; title of the book (underlined or in bold). Pages (in brackets and indicated with pp), full stop; city; publisher.

For example.:

Coulson, A.A. (1980). The role of the primary head. In Bush T.G. Katter R. Gooddey J. Riches C. (eds) Approached to school management, (pp.274-292). London: Hamper Row Ltd.

- b) Journal article. Stan author of the article (surname, initials) year (in brackets); fullstop. Title of the article (in "") title of the journal (underlines) volume (underlined); issue number (in brackets) common pages (without pp)

For example

Anderson, L.W. (1987). The classroom environment; teaching for learning: comparative education review 31 (1), 73-75.

- c) Newspaper/magazine start: author of article (surname, initials) year (in brackets.); full stops; title of the article (in fullstop title of the Newspaper/magazine (underlined)); pages (indicated buy PP)m

For example

Green. L. (2001). "A New Broom for Bristol. Nonesuch, PP28-29

2. Harvard style

Arrangements in this style are as follows

- a) Books: start - author (surname first, then initial); year; full stop; title (underlined or in bold); city; colons; publisher; full stop.

Example: Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda 1999. Research Methods quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi; Acts Press.

- b) Editors books start-author if the chapter (surname first); title of the chapter (no full stop; in: names of editors (surname First); title of the book (underlined)' city: publisher; comma; pages.

Example: Coulson. A. A. 0 980. The role of primary head. In Bush, T. et al (eds) Approaches to school management. London: Harper and Row Ltd 274-292

- c) Journal. Stan - author of the article (surname first, other names) year: title of the article; Title of the journal (underlined or in bold: volume; issue number of pages

Example: Anderson, L.W. 1987. The Classroom enrolment study: teaching for learning. *Comparative Education Review* 31,1.72-74

- d) Newspaper/magazine: start -author of article (surname first, then initials; year; article title; title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold); page; column number

Example: Green; L. 2001. A new broom for Bristol. *Nonesuch* 28, col.)

3. The British standard style

Bibliographic details in this style are arranged as follows;

- a) Book: Start, author's name (surname first initials) title (underlined or in bold): city: Publisher year of publication.

Example: Mugenda, O.M. and Abel G. Mugenda Research Methods: quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press 1999

- b) Edited books: Start: author of the chapter (surname first initials) article title.: in.; editor(s) (surname, initial) title of the book(underlined or in bold) city, publisher, year of publication, pages.

Example: Coulson, A.A. The role of the primary management. In Bush; T. et al (eds) *Approaches to school management*. London; Harper and Row Publishers, 1980, (pp.2274-292)

- c) Journal: Start: author of the article (surname initials); year full stop. Title .y, of the article (in "") title of the Journal (underlined); volume (underlined); issue number (in brackets); common pages.

Example: Anderson, L.W. (1987). "The classroom environment study: teaching for learning" *comparative education. Review* 31 (I), 73-75

- d) Newspaper/magazine: Start: author of article (surname first, then initials); article title; title of the newspaper/magazine (underlined or in bold); year of publication; pages; column number

Example: Green; L. 2001. A new broom for Bristol" Nonesuch 28. col.1

4. The University of Chicago Press-Style

Bibliographic details; in this style are arranged as follows.

- a) Book: Start authors name (surname first, initials) title of the book (underlined or in bold): city: Publisher year of publication.

Example: Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda. Research Methods quantitative and qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press. 1999

- b) Edited book. Start - author of the chapter (surname then initials);title of the chapter (in quotes).; editor(s) name (surname first, initials); in title of the book(underlined or in bold).; city;; Publisher;; year of publication:: pages

For example:

Coulson, A.A. "The role of the primary head". In Bush T. (eds) Approached to school management. London: Harper Row Ltd. (1980): (pp.274-292).

- c) Journal: Start. – author of the article (surname, then initials); articles title (in title of the journal (underlined) or (in bold); volume number; issue number (in brackets); year of publication;; pages

For example.

Anderson, L.W. "The classroom environment: teaching for learning." Comparative Education Review 31 (1), (1987). 73-75.

- d) Newspaper/magazine - start- author of the article (surname first, then initials): year, article title (in “”) Title of the newspaper/Magazine (underlined or in bold); Year;; Page;; column.

For example

Green, L. "A New Broom for Bristol". Nonesuch, (2001). PP28-29

5. Modern Language Association style

Bibliographic details in this style are arranged as follows

- a) *Book: Start - author (surname, other names;) title of the book (underlines): city:: Publisher; year of publication.*

Example: Mugenda, O. M. and Abel G. Mugenda. Research Methods quantitative and Qualitative approaches. Nairobi: Acts Press. 1999

- b) *Edited book.-Start- author of the chapter (surname first, other names); title of the chapter (in quotes); in; editor(s.) (surname first, other names); title of the book(underlined or in boldened) city : Publisher,; year of publication;;pages*

For example:.

Coulson, A. A. "The role of the primary head". In Bush T. et al Approaches to school management. London: Harper Row I .id, pp.274-292

- c) *Journal: Start - author of the article (surname First, other names); : articles; title (in quotes); article's title (in quotes); titles of the journal (underlined or in bold); volume number: issue number; (in brackets); year of publication; pages*

For example

Anderson,; L.W. "The classroom environment; teaching for learning." Comparative Education Review 31 (1), (1987). 73-75.

- d) *Newspaper/magazine - start- author of the article (surname first: then, initials); title of the article (in""); Title of the newspaper/Magazine' (underlined or in bold); Year of publication; Page,; column number.*

For example

Green, L. "A New Broom for Bristol'. Nonesuch, (2001): PP 28-29 col 1.

Note:

1. Always start with the author's surname (last name) ;
2. All titles are underlined-in bold
3. Choose and use one style only. Do not mix them.

5. Writing a Bibliography

It is always important to acknowledge the sources of information that you have used in preparing and writing your essay. This is done by compiling all bibliography of such resources.

What is a bibliography?

Bibliography is a list of resources, cited or not cited, that have been used in writing an essay. The format is as follows:

1. It is always given at the end of the essay
2. The sources are arranged in alphabetical order
3. The list should contain relevant sources that have been read when preparing for writing the essay, whether cited or not.

11.5 SUMMARY



This week we have looked at how to locate books and determine their relevance for particular purpose. We have looked at the various forms and types of catalogue along with the various ways of citing library literature used in writing academic papers. These are critical skills in the world of library use

11.6 ACTIVITY



11.6.1 Look at 5 books borrowed from the library. For each write down the following details

- i. The title of the book
- ii. The names of the author
- iii. The subject area
- iv. The year of publication
- v. The call number – the number written on the cover by the library
- vi. The town of publication

11.6.2 Read about library catalogues. Using the information, design the following types of library catalogues for each of the books

- a. Author catalogue
- b. Subject catalogue and
- c. title catalogue

11.7 SELF TEST QUESTIONS



I. Distinguish between the various forms of library catalogues



10.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990) University Course in Academic Communication Skills:
Nairobi; University of Nairobi Press.

WEEK 12

12.0 EXAMINATION SKILLS

12.1 INTRODUCTION



Examinations are one way of effectively measuring how well you have studied a certain subject or course. Success or failure in your work is determined almost, entirely by your ability to perform well in examinations. In this section we interrogate the process of preparing for exams by looking at key aspects that inform exam preparation.

12.2 OBJECTIVES



By the end of the week you should be able to:

- 12.2.1 Interpret examination questions based on given different instructions.
- 12.2.2 Highlight the challenges that examination questions pose to candidates.
- 12.2.3 Discuss best practices during, prior to and after examinations to limit anxiety.



12.3 GLOSSARY

12.3.1 Direction words: These are words in test items which provide instructions to candidates as to the requirements of the question.

12.3.2 Objective Questions:

Questions that require one to choose or provide a response to a question whose correct answer is predetermined

12.3.3 Essay Questions:

An examination questions that requires an answer in a sentence, paragraph or short composition.

12.4 REVISING FOR AN EXAM

Final success in your examination depends on laying a foundation at the outset. Make it your practice to do all the assignments, to take good notes and to review your work consistently. The more familiar you are with the course content, the easiest is to revise for tests and examinations.

- Be aware of what is expected of you by the examiner. You will need to get the course outlines of your courses. It is important that you cover 100% of the content. Do not go into an examination room with gaps in your knowledge or understanding.
- Look for past examination papers of the past three to four years to see what grounds are covered and also to find out the following: number of papers that you are expected to sit for, the number of questions you are expected to answer, how long the paper will be, the choice of questions to be answered. For example, if they are equally weighted or not.
- Make revision aids from your notes for quick reading.
- Review lecture notes, study notes and main ideas emphasized by lecturers. Make a revision time table leaving in mind the total number of exams,
- Make revision timetable leaving in mind the total numbers of exams, subjects length and difficulty, and your own strengths and weaknesses.
- For each subject, make a list of specific topics to be revised, e.g. note-taking, examination skills etc.
- Decide on the order of importance of the topics and allocate time appropriately.
- Limit each study session to two hours or less; allow for breaks within a revision session and at the end of each session, before embarking on the next topic. During the break, reflect on what you have been revising.
- Allow for repeats of difficult topics
- Plan to revise different topics in a day for variety.

INTERPRETING EXAMINATION QUESTIONS

The Skill of interpreting and answering examinations questions is of extreme importance to a student. One's knowledge, skill or attitude in a particular subject or course is usually - determined by the score or grade one obtains in an examination. It is therefore necessary that every student is able to.

1. Read and interpret examination questions more efficiently
2. Choose the right questions
3. Organise your answer according to the type of question
4. Use the time available economically

Various studies have identified the main factors that make an exam difficult for the particular group doing an exam. These factors can be summarised as follows:

1. Subject or concept difficulty
2. Process difficulty, where a particular operation or sequence of operations demands manipulation of data at a level beyond and the recall of specific learned items.
3. Question or stimulus difficulty, where the guidance given to candidates in directing their attention to a particular response, or the support given in terms of additional information or data, is either minimal or non-specific.

The third factor can be isolated as the most common, with relevance to university students. The problem usually arises from the candidates' failure to interpret DIRECTION WORDS. One reason why it is very difficult to interpret direction words is that many of them are used interchangeably, for example, the word write may mean state, outline, name, list, construct or even trace.

The following are common direction words and their meanings in examination contexts.

1. *Description*

We often describe a process, e.g. how paper is made, or a procedure, e.g. how to thread a sewing machine. The other type of description presents the details and characteristics of something or somebody, e.g. in describing the climate of a place.

2. *Definition*

In defining, we often use the words **who** for persons e.g. a doctor is a person **WHO** gives medical treatment to people; which for inanimate objects e.g. bronze is an alloy **WHICH** is produced from tin and copper; and where for places e.g. a school is an institution **WHERE** children are educated. Often, academic writing omits the 'wh' word as in the following example. "Demography is the study of population growth and its structure.

3. *Exemplification*

Exemplification refers to the use of examples or illustrations. These are usually used together with definitions, e.g. 'Linguistics is the study of language, for example, its structure and sound system.

4. *Classification*

When we divide something into groups, classes or categories we are classifying those items. These classes also help us to define things. An example of this is the following classification of DRINKS into alcoholic and non-alcoholic, hot and cold etc.

5. This involves bringing out the similarities and differences or advantages and disadvantages between things. It is a particular way of describing as opposed to simply outlining a process or procedure referred to earlier.

6. *Cause and Effect*

The relationship described in this kind of writing refers to the cause, reason or purpose of an event, situation, action, idea or problem and their effect, consequence, result or solution, eg. heat **CAUSES** iron to expand; the prices rose as a **RESULT** of increased demand.

7. *Argument/Discussion*

An argument or discussion is a balanced view. We look at the points in favour and those against and then draw our own conclusion.

8. *Account*

- To give an account of means to describe. Brief account indicates, of course that not too much time should be spent on the description.
- To account for means give reason(s) for.

9. *Apply (to)*

This means to put something to use; show how something can be used in a particular situation. The 'something' that is to be applied may be a theory, or certain findings, data results of research, etc.

10. *Comment (on)*

Give your views on something; say what you think about something. This D-word is often used with a quotation or statement: you are expected to give your own reaction to it (views on it). Do you agree with the statement or not? What are your reasons?

11. *Consider*

Describe and give your thoughts on

12. *Discuss*

13. *Evaluate*

Decide the worth of something; judge; decide how good, bad, worthwhile, relevant, important, etc. something is. Evaluation relates to comparing certain things and deciding, which is best.

14. *Explain*

Explain why means give reasons for, cause of something. Often another way of saying why ...? To explain how means describing a process clearly.

15. *Identify*

Put a name to or list something.

16. *Indicate:*

Point out, does not usually involve giving very much detail.

17. *List*

Make a list of a number of things. Usually involve simply remembering or finding out a number of things and putting them down one after the other, but it is often better if you make your list according to same kind of system.

18. *Plan*

Think out how something is to be done, make or organised etc. You usually have to show that you can think your way into a problem, foresee difficulties and think of practical solutions

19. *Report (on)*

Describe what one has seen or done. Usually refers to something which has experienced directly (personally).

20. *Review*

Write a report on something. Sometimes it involves both stating what facts and also saying what your own opinions are.

21. *Specify*

Give details of something. Usually involves being specific, Precise, accurate.

22. *State*

Say clearly

23. *Work out*

Find a solution to a problem etc.

PREPARING FOR AN EXAMINATION

a) One week before the exam

Find out about the examination

1. When and where will be examination be held?
2. What time does it start and how long does it take?
3. What areas will it cover?
4. What forms will the question take? Objective? Short answer? Essays? Problem solving? Practical? Or combination?

5. How many questions should be attempted?
6. Are some questions compulsory?

b) The day before the exam

1. Check again the time and place of examination?
2. Check again your examination number
3. Make sure that you have all the materials you need for the examination
4. Revise only the top priority areas
5. Avoid learning new information
6. Be relaxed and focus your mind on the forthcoming exam.
7. Go to bed early and wake up in good time to avoid rushing.

c) Arrival at the examination venue

Arrive at the examination venue in good time

Avoid discussing the forthcoming examinations.

Once in the examination room, arrange all the materials you will need on the table.

d) The actual examination

When you get the question paper, apply the PQIRST technique. Preview Question, Re-read, Select, and Think.

1. Preview

-Read all the general and specific instructions, and essay questions. -Skim passages and objective questions

2. Question

-Take note of the sections, in the paper, number of questions per section, any compulsory questions and the marks allocated for each question.

3. Re-read

Re-read the specific instructions for each section/question. Pay special attention to key verbs. E.g. circle, underline, compare, define, criticize, write, evaluate etc.

4. Select

Select the questions you feel most confident to answer. Start with the easiest questions; more progressively to the more difficult ones.

5. Think

Think of how to make the best use of the time allocated. Allocate time proportional to the marks available per question.

ANSWERING OBJECTIVE AND SHORT ANSWER QUESTIONS

Use the SCORER mnemonic: Schedule, Clue, Omit, Read, Estimate, and Review
Schedule

Allocate time for each question proportional to the indicated marks and leave ample time at the end for revision.

Clue

Use clue words. In true/false tests, certain words indicate give a clue e.g. always, every, all invariably, often, seldom, never, sometimes, usually.

Omit difficult question on first attempt. Each time you omit a question, make minus (-) mark in the margin against the question. Whenever you attempt a question stopped earlier, change *the minus (-) to a plus (+)*.

Read

Read, each question carefully and do not omit any part. There may be information at the end that changes the meaning of the entire question.

Estimate

Estimate the answer when you are not sure. Make an intelligent guess.

Review

Review your work to make sure that you have answered all the questions required and followed the instructions given.

ANSWERING ESSAY QUESTIONS

Apply the POWER mnemonic: Purpose, Organise, Write, Evaluate, Revise *Purpose*

Establish the purpose and stick to it. Ask yourself-what exactly am I supposed to do and how best can I achieve that purpose? This is important to avoid irrelevancy.

Organise

Organise your answer before you write it. Make a fairly detailed outline. Make sure that Supporting ideas contribute to the main ideas.

Write

Write the essay. Put your outline before you and refer to it often. Each paragraph, must contain only one idea. Pay special attention to words that indicate relationships e.g. in addition, furthermore, similarly, as a result, consequently etc. Write as legibly as possible.

Evaluate

Evaluate your work and use of time as you proceed. Keep asking critical questions like: are there enough facts and examples to support this statement? Is the meaning of this statement absolutely clear? Am I operating within the time allocated?

Revise

Revise the essay. Proofread your essays carefully to ensure that you have written what you intended to write.

END OF THE EXAMINATION PAPER

- Check to ensure that you have answered the correct number of questions.
- Ensure that all answers and pages are appropriately labelled
- Ensure that all the identification details appear on your answer booklet
- If you use loose paper, staple the answer sheets together in the order in which you've answered the questions.
- Check through your answers for factual spelling, punctuation and grammatical errors.
- Do not discuss the exam after doing it.

HANDWRITING

No matter the amount of pressure you may be under, you must write in a LEGIBLE handwriting. It is only through reading your answer that the examiner can award you marks. If you write an excellent answer but one which cannot be read, you have nothing to gain.

CHEATING IN THE EXAMS

Cheating during the examinations seems to be on the increase. Be advised that any form of cheating, either by taking forbidden materials into the examination room or looking over somebody else's answer is taken very seriously and could lead to the nullification of

your examination marks. Moreover, you will never be really proud of your results if you know you got good grades only because you cheated.

12.5 SUMMARY



Examinations are important in the teaching and learning process. Success in exams depends on the foundation laid in readiness for the exams along with the ability to interpret questions correctly. Anxiety during exams is sometimes a product of what learners do or fail to do just before, during and after exams. Honesty in exams is key to success.

1.2.6 ACTIVITY

12.6.1 Look for two past examination papers related to any of the courses



which you are taking. From the list construct a table with the divisions: LOW ORDER and HIGH ORDER questions) as indicated below. Place the verbs identified in 1 above in appropriate column.

VERB	LOWER ORDER	HIGH ORDER	IMPLICATION (Identify the aspect being tested)

12.7 SELF TEST



12.7.1 Write down six activities you will engage in the preparation of examinations under the following headings:

- A night to examination
- One week to examinations
- One month to examinations

12.7.2 List down important things which one needs to observe a day to the examination.

12.7.3 Examine why learners tend to perform poorly in areas where they are good at.



12.8 FURTHER READING

Bint.et.al (1990). University Course in Academic Communication Skills: Nairobi; University of Nairobi Press.